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**ENG519 Midterm Short Notes
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ORIGINS OF LANGUAGE CURRICULUM DESIGN

Topic- 001: Overview

This topic gives a synopsis of the areas which will be the main focus throughout this course. Basically, it is an overview of language curriculum development processes and suggests that like other areas of curriculum activity, it is concerned with principles and procedures of the planning, delivery, management, and assessment of English language teaching and learning. Curriculum development process is seen as a combination of needs analysis, goal setting, format and presentation, principles, syllabus design, methodology, approaches to curriculum, professional development of teachers and testing and evaluation. In this topic, reference is made to the National Curriculum for English Language (NCEL, 2006) in the Pakistani context.

This topic also problematizes the notion of how language curriculum development is seen as a broader field of educational activity known as curriculum development or curriculum studies. Curriculum development focuses on determining what knowledge, skills, and values students learn in schools; what experiences should be provided to bring about intended learning outcomes; and how teaching and learning in schools or educational systems can be planned, measured, and evaluated. Language curriculum development refers to the field of applied linguistics that addresses these issues. It familiarizes us with an interrelated set of processes that focuses on designing, revising, implementing, and evaluating language programs.

Topic-002: Definitions

This topic focuses on defining two key terms: 1) language curriculum design (LCD) and 2) syllabus design. Syllabus design is one aspect of curriculum development but is not identical with it. A syllabus is seen as a specification of the content of a course of instruction and lists all possible teaching content. Thus, the syllabus for a speaking course might specify:

- The kinds of oral skills that will be taught and practiced during the course
- The functions
- Topics or other aspects of conversation that will be taught, and the order in which they will appear in the course

Syllabus design is the process of developing a syllabus. Curriculum development is a more comprehensive process than syllabus design. It includes the processes that are used to determine the needs of a group of learners, to develop aims or objectives for a program, to address the needs, to determine an appropriate syllabus, course structure, teaching methods, and materials, and finally, to carry out an evaluation of the language program that results from these processes.

Topic-003: Historical Background

In this topic we will examine the development of curriculum in language teaching through its

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various stages in its history. The rationale why we are starting from historical perspective of the LCD (Language Curriculum Design) is that it will help us better understand how earlier approaches and issues

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to curriculum design shaped our understanding of the existing curriculum. The notion of LCD, as we know it today, really began in the 1960s. However, the issues of syllabus design emerged as a major factor in language teaching much earlier. In this lecture, our focus will be the main approaches to syllabus design that emerged in the first part of the twentieth century. We will also examine the approaches that laid the foundations for more broadly based curriculum design that is used in language teaching today.

If we look back at the history of language teaching throughout the twentieth century, much of the impetus for changes in approaches to language teaching came about from changes in teaching methods. The method concept in teaching - the notion of a systematic set of teaching practices based on a particular theory of language and language learning - is powerful and the quest for better methods has been a preoccupation of many teachers and applied linguists since the beginning of the twentieth century. Many methods have come and gone in the last 100 years in pursuit of the -best method-.

Topic-004: Historical Perspective of Language Teaching Methods

Although there has been a preference for particular methods at different times, methods often continue in some form long after they have fallen out of favor; this observation is still true today, as we see, grammar translation method is still alive in some parts of the world.

The following chronology illustrates with dates the periods of greatest dominance:

- Grammar Translation Method (1800-1900)
- Direct Method (1890-1930)
- Structural Method (1930-1960)
- Reading Method (1920-1950)
- Audiolingual Method (1950-1970)
- Situational Method (1950-1970)
- Communicative Approach (1970-present)

Topic-005: Historical Role of Vocabulary Selection

All teaching, of course, demands a choice of what will be taught from the total field of the subject. The teaching of a language at any level and under any circumstances requires the selection of certain features of the language. Some features of language are excluded intentionally or unintentionally. Two aspects of selection received primary attention in the first few decades of the 20th century. These are:

- Vocabulary selection
- Grammar selection

language teaching. However, the main questions confronted in the first few decades of the 20th century were what words should be taught and in which order. Thus, these core issues to vocabulary selection led to the emergence of lexical syllabus.

Lesson-02

ORIGINS OF LANGUAGE CURRICULUM DESIGN: APPROACHES TO VOCABULARY SELECTION

Topic-006: Early Approaches and Goals

Vocabulary is one of the most obvious components of language and one of the first things applied linguists turned their attention to. What words should be taught in second language and in what order? What can be derived from research on origins of LCD (Language Curriculum Design) is that students studying from any of the books in this study would spend a large amount of time. They might spend time to understand and use vocabulary that is probably of little importance. Some of the earliest approaches to vocabulary selection involved counting large collections of texts to determine the frequency with which words occurred, since it would seem obvious that words of highest frequency should be taught first. The earliest frequency counts undertaken for language teaching were based on analysis of popular reading materials and resulted in a word frequency list. Word frequency research revealed some interesting facts about vocabulary usage. For example, it was discovered that a small class of words (around 3,000) accounted for up to 85 percent of the words used in everyday texts but that it would take an extra 6,000 words to increase this by 1 percent. It was also found that about half the words in a text occur only once. However, recognizing 85 percent of the words in a text is not the same as understanding 85 percent of the text. One or two words per line will still not be understood, and these are often the key words in the text since they reflect the topic of the text and the new information in it.

Topic-007: Early Procedures of Vocabulary Selection

Criteria to determine word lists

The following criteria should be considered while determining the word lists:

Teach-ability: In a course that is taught by following the Direct Method or Total Physical Response Method, concrete vocabulary is taught early because it can easily be illustrated through pictures or by demonstration.

Similarity: Some items may be selected because they are similar to words in the native language. For example, English and French have many cognates such as table, page, and nation, and this may justify their inclusion in a word list for French-speaking learners.

Availability: Some words may not be frequent but are readily available in the sense that they come quickly to mind when certain topics are thought of. For example, *classroom* calls to mind *desk*, *chair*, *teacher*, and *pupil*, and therefore, these words might be worth teaching at early stage in a course.

Coverage: Words that cover or include the meanings of other words may also be useful. For example, *seat* might be taught because it includes the meanings of *stool*, *bench*, and *chair*.

Defining power: Some words could be selected because they are useful in defining other words, even though they are not among the most frequent words in the language. For example, *container* might be useful because it can help define *bucket*, *jar*, and *carton*.

The procedures of vocabulary selection lead to the compilation of a basic vocabulary (now called a lexical syllabus). These procedures classify vocabulary of language course usually into different groups or levels such as the first 500 words, the second 500 words, and so on. Word frequency research has been an active area of language research since the 1920s and continues to be so because of the ease with which word frequencies and patterns of word distribution can be identified using computers. One of the most important lexical syllabuses in language teaching was Michael West's *A General Service List of English Words* (1953), which contains a list of some 2,000 words.

Topic-008: Historical Background to Grammar Selection and Gradation

The need for a systematic approach to selecting grammar for teaching purposes was also a priority for applied linguists from the 1920s. The need for grammatical selection is seen in the following examples which are some of the structures that can be used for the speech act of -asking permission:

- Can/may I use your telephone please?
- Please let me use your telephone.
- Is it all right to use your telephone?
- If it's all right with you, I'll use your telephone.
- Am I allowed to use your telephone?
- Do you mind if I use your telephone?
- Do you mind me using your telephone?
- Would you mind if I used your telephone?
- You don't mind if I use your telephone (do you)?
- I wonder if you have any objection to me using your telephone.
- Would you permit me to use your telephone?
- Would you be so kind as to allow me to use your telephone?
- Would it be possible for me to use your telephone?
- Do you think you could let me use your telephone?

Topic-009: Application of Principles of Selection and Gradation

The following principles have been used or suggested as a basis for developing grammatical syllabuses:

Simplicity and centrality: This recommends choosing structures that are simple and more central to the basic structure of the language than those that are complex and peripheral. By these criteria, the following would occur in an introductory-level English course:

- The train arrived. (Subject Verb)

- She is a journalist. (Subject Verb Complement)

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- We ate the fruit. (Subject Verb Object)

The following would be excluded by the same criteria:

- Having neither money nor time, we decided buying a ticket to the opera was out of the question.
- For her to speak to us like that was something we had never anticipated.

Topic-010: Approaches to Gradation

The following approaches to gradation are possible:

Linguistic distance: This approach emphasizes first on those teaching structures that are similar to the native language. This is because the elements that are similar the learners' native language will be simple for them and the ones that are different will be difficult.

Intrinsic difficulty: This principle argues that simple structures should be taught before the complex ones and this is the commonest criterion used to justify the sequence of grammatical items in a syllabus.

Communicative need: Some structures will be needed early and cannot be postponed despite their difficulty (such as the *simple past* in English) since it is difficult to avoid making reference to past events for very long in a course.

Frequency: The frequency of occurrence of structures and grammatical items in the target language may also affect the order in which they appear in a syllabus, although as we noted, this sort of little information is available to syllabus planners. Frequency may also compete with other criteria. The *present continuous* is not one of the most frequent verb forms in English but it is often introduced early in a language course because it is relatively easy to demonstrate and practice in a classroom context.

In the 1940s, *beginners' courses* in English began to appear in which principles of vocabulary and grammatical control were evident and in which grammatical structures were organized into graded sequences. The methods in use at the time placed a major emphasis on the learning of –structures. Although both lexical and grammatical syllabuses have provided important guidelines for the development of language teaching textbooks and materials since the first such syllabuses appeared in the 1920s yet grammar syllabuses have been regarded as the core of a language course or program.

Topic-011: Assumptions Underlying Early Approaches to Syllabus Design

We can now examine the assumptions behind the approaches to syllabus design that emerged in the first part of the twentieth century and reveal the limitations that subsequent directions in syllabus design sought to address. These assumptions are as follows:

- **The basic units of language are vocabulary and grammar**

The followers of traditions approached the teaching of English largely through its vocabulary and grammar. Although the role of speaking and pronunciation were not ignored during the actual teaching of the language, the priority in planning was vocabulary and grammar and these were seen as the main building blocks of language development. Once some system and order could be introduced into these areas through careful syllabus planning and specification, it was believed that language teaching could be put on a more rational and sound basis.

- **Learners everywhere have the same needs**

The focus in language teaching was on –general English, hence the title of West's word list (1953). It was believed that the core vocabulary of the General Service List together with a grammatical syllabus of the type Hornby (1954) elaborated would serve as the basis for almost all language courses.

- **Learners' needs are identified exclusively in terms of language needs**

No matter who the learners are or the circumstances of their learning, it is assumed that mastery of English will solve their problems. The goal of English teaching is to teach them English - not to teach them how to solve their problems through English.

- **The process of learning a language is largely determined by the textbook**

The primary input to the language learning process that the learners received was the textbook; hence, the importance of the principles of selection and gradation are ways of controlling the content of the textbook and facilitating language learning.

- **The context of teaching is English as a foreign language**

Most of the early work by Palmer (1982), West (1953), and Hornby (1954) on the development of lexical and grammatical syllabuses was done in contexts where English was a foreign language, that is, where students studied English as a formal subject in school but had no immediate need for it outside of the classroom. The classroom and the textbook provided the primary input to the language learning process, hence the goal of syllabus developers was to simplify and rationalize this input as far as possible through the processes of selection and gradation.

FROM SYLLABUS DESIGN TO CURRICULUM DEVELOPMENT

Topic-012: The Quest for New Methods

The teaching of English as a second or foreign language became an increasingly important activity after World War II. Immigrants, refugees, and foreign students generated a huge demand for English courses in the United Kingdom, Canada, the United States, and Australia. The role of English as a language of international communication had expanded rapidly by the 1950s. There was much greater mobility of people as a result of growth in air travel and international tourism. English was increasingly important in international trade and commerce. The role of English was supported by the growth of radio, film, and television.

The initial response of the English-language teaching profession was to explore new directions in methodology. It was assumed that in order to meet the changing needs of language learners, more up-to-date teaching methods were needed that reflected the latest understandings of the nature of language and of language learning. Linguistics was a source of theories about the organization and structure of language and these were eagerly applied in the cause of new –scientifically based teaching methods. The 1950s and 1960s in language teaching were hence times of methodological excitement. In Britain, applied linguists developed a methodology that drew on the oral approach that had been developed in the twenties and thirties linked to a carefully graded grammatical and lexical syllabus. The methodology had the following characteristics:

- A structural syllabus with graded vocabulary levels.
- Meaningful presentation of structures in contexts through the use of situations to contextualize new teaching points.
- A sequence of classroom activities that went from *Presentation*, to controlled *Practice*, to freer *Production* (the PPP method).

Topic-013: Re-Evaluation of Teaching Methods and its Influence on Language Curriculum Development

But a missing element in the enthusiasm for new methods was a consideration of the extent to which teaching methods addressed learners' needs. One response to this concern was a re-evaluation of language teaching policy in many European countries in the 1970s with a view to determine such things as which foreign languages should be taught in the school system; at what year languages should be introduced into the curriculum and with what intensity (for example, two, four, or six class periods a week). The status of the teaching of classical languages was also being reviewed.

In 1969, the Council of Europe (a regional organization of European countries designed to promote cultural and educational cooperation), in order to promote the more effective learning of foreign languages within the community, decided that:

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- If full understanding is to be achieved among the countries of Europe, the language barriers between them must be removed.
- Linguistic diversity is a part of the European cultural heritage and that it should, through the study of modern languages, provide a source of intellectual enrichment rather than an obstacle to

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unity.

Only if the study of modern European languages becomes general, will full mutual understanding and cooperation be possible in Europe?

Topic-014: The Role of English for ESP

In contrast to students learning English for general purposes for whom mastery of the language for its own sake or in order to pass a general examination is the primary goal, the ESP student is usually studying English in order to carry out a particular role such as that of a foreign student in an English-medium university, a flight attendant, a mechanic, or a doctor.

traditional pre-ESP response to this situation in the 1950s citing the example of a country that needs to teach foreign languages to key personnel dealing with trade or foreign business. Trainees are released for four hours daily for a year. Two language laboratories are equipped with materials and the trainees follow a state-of-the-art audiovisual course in –spoken colloquial English|| based on selection and gradation by structural criteria with some additional *situational language*. However, the course takes no account of functional communicative needs or the learner's own immediate situation. The English setting is largely a matter of an English family and some English surroundings; there is certainly no attempt to teach the English 'rules of use' in terms of situations and relationships. The concept of 'spoken colloquial English' is one largely based upon a structural description of written English and without reference to functional uses and roles (Jupp and Hodlin 1975).

Topic-015: Register Analysis and Discourse Analysis

Throughout the 1970s, the ESP approach in language teaching drew on *register analysis* and *discourse analysis* to determine the linguistic characteristics of different disciplines such as medicine, engineering, or science. Register analysis studies the language of such fields as journalism, medicine, or law for distinctive patterns of occurrence of vocabulary, verb forms, noun phrases, and tense usage.

- **The research process:** The vocabulary is primarily verbs and nouns and is presented in a context which discusses the five steps of research: formulating, investigating, analysing, drawing conclusions and reporting results.
- **The vocabulary of analysis:** It includes high-frequency and two-word verbs needed in order to present information in an organized sequence, for example, *consist of, group, result from, derive, base on, be noted for*, etc.

Discourse analysis examines the communicative contexts that affect language use, for example, in social transactions, the relationship between the discourse and the speakers and listeners. For example, it looks at how the choice of verb tenses or other grammatical features affect the structure of the discourse. The analysis also looks at the relationship between utterances, for example, aspects of cohesion, and the discourse markers or cohesive devices that are employed.

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Identifying patterns of text organization was a focus of this approach. For example, a common discourse structure found in many scientific papers is the problem-solution structure.

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FROM SYLLABUS DESIGN TO CURRICULUM DEVELOPMENT: HISTORICAL OVERVIEW

Topic-016: Historical Overview of Needs Analysis Within ESP Movement

The learners' needs

An important principle of ESP approaches to language teaching is that the purposes for which a learner needs a language rather than a syllabus reflecting the structure of general English should be used in planning an English course. Rather than developing a course around an analysis of the language, an ESP approach starts instead with an analysis of the learner's needs. Different types of students have different language needs and what they are taught should be restricted to what they need. In ESP, learners' needs are often described in terms of performance that of what the learner will be able to do with the language at the end of a course of study. Whereas in a general English course, the goal is usually an overall mastery of the language that can be tested on a global language test, the goal of an ESP course is to prepare the learners to carry out a specific task or set of tasks. The student of ESP is usually studying to perform a role. The measure of success for students learning English for hotel waiters, or the English for food technology, is whether they can perform convincingly as hotel waiters in English or whether they can act appropriately as food technologists in English and pass exams in food technology, rather than exams in English.

Topic-017: The Munby Model

Munby (1978), in an influential book of the time, describes a systematic approach to needs analysis in ESP course design and focuses on two dimensions of needs analysis: 1) The procedures used to specify the target-level communicative competence of the student, and 2) Procedures for turning the information into a syllabus. The Munby model describes the kind of information needed to develop a profile of the learner's communicative needs. An example will illustrate how the model could be applied in carrying out a needs profile. If one were profiling the needs of restaurant staff such as waiters and waitresses, the following information might be revealed through applying the Munby model:

- **Personal:** Who the employees are, their age, nationalities, sex, educational background, work experience.
- **Purpose:** The kinds of outcomes expected such as the types of communicative skills the clients need to develop.
- **Setting:** The type of restaurant in which the employees work and the kinds of customers who use the restaurant.
- **Interactional:** The role and relationships such as waiter/waitress to variables customer, waiter/waitress to restaurant manager.

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- **Medium/ mode:** Whether spoken or written, face to face and channel dialects or both formal and casual styles.
- **Target level:** Whether basic, intermediate, or advanced

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- **Anticipated:** For example, greetings, taking requests, clarifying communicative information, describing menu items.

Topic-018: The Influence of Communicative Language Teaching (CLT)

CLT was a response to changes in the field of linguistics in the 1970s. It was also a response to the need for new approaches to language teaching in Europe as a result of initiative by groups such as the Council of Europe. Linguistics moved away from a focus on grammar as the core component of language abilities to a consideration of how language is used by speakers in different contexts of communication. The capacity to use language appropriately in communication based on the setting, the roles of the participants and the nature of the transaction was referred to as communicative competence. Applied linguists sought to apply this notion to language teaching. As a grammatical syllabus is based on the notion of grammatical competence (the knowledge people have of a language that underlies their capacities to produce and recognize sentences in the language), therefore, a different type of syllabus would be needed to teach communicative competence. What would such a syllabus look like? An important book in 1976 by Wilkins (who was one of the members of a committee set up by the Council of Europe that formulated the Threshold Level) sought to answer this.

Topic-019: Emergence of Curriculum Approach in Language Teaching

The term ‘curriculum studies’ refers to a very broad field of inquiry that deals with what happens in schools and other educational institutions, the planning of instruction and the study of how curriculum plans are implemented. A curriculum in a school context refers to the whole body of knowledge that children acquire in schools. Rodgers (1989) comments:

–Syllabi, which prescribe the content to be covered by a given course, form only a small part of the total school program. Curriculum is a far broader concept. Curriculum is all those activities in which children engage under the auspices of the school. This includes not only what pupils learn, but how they learn it, how teachers help them learn through using what supporting materials, styles and methods of assessment, and in what kind of facilities.

SITUATION/ENVIRONMENT ANALYSIS -I

Topic-020: Introduction to Situation/Environment Analysis

A language curriculum is a function of the interrelationships that hold between subject-specific concerns and other broader factors embracing socio-political and philosophical matters, educational value systems, theory and practice in curriculum design, teacher experiential wisdom and learner motivation. In order to understand the foreign language curriculum in any particular context, it is therefore necessary to attempt to understand how all the various influences interrelate to give a particular shape to the planning and execution of the teaching/learning process.

Situation analysis is an analysis of factors in the context of a planned or present curriculum project that is made in order to assess their political, social, economic, or institutional situation. Situation analysis complements the information gathered during needs analysis.

Topic-021: Example of Social and Political Factors Involved in Situation Analysis

Example: A team of foreign experts under contract to an international funding body is given a contract to write a new series of English textbooks for the state school system in an EFL country. They base themselves in an attractive small town in a rural setting and set up their writing project. They do a series of interviews with educational officials and teachers to determine students' language needs and make use of the latest thinking on language teaching and textbook design to produce an oral-based language course that reflects recommended language teaching methodology of the time. Textbooks are developed and provided to secondary schools at no cost and teachers are given the choice of using the new books or their old outdated government textbooks. After a period of initial enthusiasm, however, very few teachers end up using the new course and revert to using the old government-provided textbooks.

Comment: The project team members spent insufficient time familiarizing themselves with the local school situation. Most English teachers had a limited command of English. Teachers found the new materials difficult to teach because they required a high level of oral fluency in English and an English-only methodology that was difficult to implement in large classes. A more successful reception might have occurred if the introduction of the new materials had been gradual so that problems were addressed as they occurred. In addition, there could have been more provision for teacher training.

Topic-022: Example of Economic Factors Involved in Situation Analysis

Example: A large private university of an EFL country decides that instead of using commercial materials in its language institute, it will produce its own materials and publish them. It is hoped that they will compete on the market with materials produced by commercial publishers. A large amount of money is invested in setting up a materials writing team and the books are prepared. When they are finally published,

however, it is found that a few other institutes or schools want to use them.

Comment: Private universities in this country are highly competitive, and the fact that the materials were produced by one institution meant that other institutions did not want to use them. Some basic market

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research should have been carried out at the initial stages of the project to determine if there is a commercial market for the materials.

Topic-023: Project Factors

Curriculum projects are typically produced by a team of people. Members of the team may be specialists who are hired specifically for the purpose; they may be classroom teachers who are seconded to the project for a fixed period of time. The project may be carried out by teachers and other staff of a teaching institution as a part of their regular duties. Projects are completed under different constraints of time, resources, and personnel. Each of these variables can have a significant impact on a project. There should be sufficient members in the project to do the job and they should represent a balance of skills and expertise. Some projects are generously resourced while others operate on a shoestring budget. The time frame for a project needs to be carefully planned. If a curriculum development team takes on too ambitious a task for the time available, the quality of their efforts may be compromised. The working dynamics of the team are also essential to the smooth progress of the project. If the team members are highly committed to the project and share a common vision, it is likely to encounter fewer difficulties than one where the project team experiences internal feuds and power struggles. The following project factors need to be considered:

- Who constitutes the project group and how are they selected?
- What are the management and other responsibilities of the team?
- How are goals and procedures determined?
- Who reviews the progress of the project and performance of its members?
- What experience do members of the team have?
- How do members of the team regard each other?
- What resources do they have available and what budget to acquire the needed resources?
- What is the time frame of the project? Is it realistic, or is more or less time needed?

Topic-024: Institutional Factors

Schools are organizations and they develop a culture, ethos or environment which might be favorable or unfavorable that encourages change and the implementation of innovations. A school with a relatively open climate, where the teachers collaborate with each other and where the principal and senior teachers are supportive of teachers, is more likely to try to implement a change. In contrast, a school where the principal focuses on administrative matters and the teachers work in isolation or in narrow subject-based groups (where there is no mechanism to discuss and try to solve problems) is less likely to change.

A teaching institution is a collection of teachers, groups and departments, sometimes functioning in collaboration, sometimes with different components functioning independently, or sometimes with components in a confrontational relationship. Within an institution, there may be a strong and positive climate to support innovation, one where there is effective and positive leadership and where change is received positively. On the other hand, there may be a climate where teachers distrust one another and the administration has no firm commitment to the school. In some institutions, there is a strong sense of

professional commitment and a culture of quality that influences every aspect of the institution's operations. In others, the driving force of the school may be monetary. As a cost-saving measure, heavy

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reliance is made on part-time teachers or teachers with little training and experience. They are not paid for lesson preparation time and consequently teach their classes and then depart for their next teaching assignment, perhaps in another school.

Institutional factors thus relate to the following kinds of questions:

- What leadership is available within the school to support change and to help teachers cope with change?
- What are the school's physical resources, including classroom facilities, media and other technological resources, and library resources?
- What is the role of textbooks and other instructional materials?
- What is staff morale?
- What problems do teachers face and what is being done about them?
- What administrative support is available within the school and what is communication like between teachers and the administration?
- What kind of reputation does the institution have for delivering successful language programs?
- How committed is the institution to attaining excellence?

Topic-025: Teacher Factors

Teacher is a key factor in the successful implementation of curriculum changes. Exceptional teachers can often compensate for the poor-quality resources and materials they have to work from. But inadequately trained teachers may not be able to make effective use of teaching materials, no matter how well they are designed. In any institution, teachers may vary according to the following dimensions:

- Language proficiency
- Skill and expertise
- Training and qualifications
- Morale and motivation
- Teaching style
- Beliefs and principles

Among the teacher factors that need to be considered in situation analysis are the following:

of beliefs do the teachers typically hold concerning key issues in teaching?

- What teaching loads do teachers have and what resources do they make use of?
- What typical teaching methods do the teachers use and believe in?
- To what extent are teachers open to change?

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- What opportunities do they have for retraining through in-service or other kinds of opportunities?
- What benefits are the proposed new syllabuses, curriculum, or materials likely to offer teachers?

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SITUATION/ENVIRONMENT ANALYSIS -II

Topic-026: Learner Factors

Learners are the key participants in curriculum project and it is essential to collect as much information as possible about them before the project begins. This topic focuses on factors such as the learners' backgrounds, expectations, beliefs and preferred learning styles. The project designers may be operating from a set of assumptions about education, schools, teachers and students that are culturally bound and at odds with the beliefs and assumptions of the learners. Some of the relevant learner factors are given below:

- What are the learners' past language learning experiences?
- How motivated are the learners to learn English?
- What are their expectations for the program?
- Do the learners' views on language teaching reflect any culturally specific factors?
- Are they a homogeneous or a heterogeneous group?
- What type of learning approach do they favour (e.g., teacher-led, student-focused, or small-group work)?
- What type of content do they prefer?
- What expectations do they have for the roles of teachers, learners, and instructional materials?
- How much time can they be expected to put into the program?
- What learning resources will they typically have access to?

Topic-027: Adoption Factors

Any attempt to introduce a new curriculum, syllabus, or set of materials must take into account the relative ease or difficulty of introducing change into the system. Curriculum changes are of many different kinds. They may affect teachers' pedagogical values and beliefs, their understanding of the nature of language or second language learning, or their classroom practices and use of teaching materials. Some changes may be readily accepted while others might be resisted. Therefore, the following questions should be asked about any proposed curriculum innovation:

- What advantages does the curriculum change offer? Is the innovation perceived to be more advantageous than current practices?
- How compatible is it? Is the use of the innovation consistent with the existing beliefs, attitudes, organization, and practices within a classroom or school?
- Is the innovation very complicated and difficult to understand?

- Has it been used and tested out in some schools before all schools are expected to use it?

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- Have the features and benefits of the innovation been clearly communicated to teachers and institutions?

Topic-028: Exemplification of Environment Analysis

Here is an example of an environment analysis on a course for young Japanese learners (aged six to nine years) who had lived in English speaking countries while their parents were posted there. During their time overseas, they learned quite a lot of English in much the same way as native speaking learners do. On their return to Japan, once a week for one and a half hours, they attended a special class to help maintain their English. They all could speak Japanese and were attending Japanese medium schools in Japan. The important constraints on the special second language maintenance class were as follows:

- There was a very limited class and contact time with English.
- There would be a drop in the learners' interest in learning English as they are identified more strongly with Japan and being Japanese.
- The learners knew that they could communicate more easily with each other in Japanese than in English.
- There was a range of levels of English proficiency with some learners appearing to be very proficient for their age.
- The learners had been learning English in much the same ways as native speakers acquire their first language.

These constraints could have the following effects on curriculum design:

- Parents should be guided in giving their children some extra contact with English.
- The activities should be fun so that the children look forward to do them for their own sake.
- Some of the activities should carry over to the next class so that the children look forward to continue them.
- The activities should be largely teacher-centred rather than group or pair work.
- Most of the activities should be meaning-focused. Language-focused activities should mainly involve correction.

Topic-029: Environment Constraints

Sometimes, it is necessary to consider wider aspects of the situation when carrying out an environment analysis. There may, for example, be institutional or government policies requiring the use of the target language in schools (Liu, 2004), or there may be negative attitudes towards the target language among learners in post-colonial societies. Dubin and Olshtain (1986) suggest a useful way of thinking about the wider environment that can have implications for language curriculum design. For example, the language curriculum in a situation where the target language is recognized as one of a country's official languages (the political and national context) then there are relatively few native

speakers (the language setting); there are relatively few opportunities to use the language outside the

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classroom (patterns of language use in society); majority-language speakers doubt the target language's contemporary relevance (group and individual attitudes) will differ greatly from that in a situation where the target language provides employment and educational opportunities.

Topic-030: Understanding the Constraints

In order to understand a constraint fully, it is usually necessary to examine the nature of the constraint in the environment you are working in, and to examine previous research on the constraint. For example, let us look briefly at the constraint of class size. If this constraint is considered to be important for the particular course being designed, it is useful to know exactly how large the classes are. Do they contain 40 students or 140 students? Is it possible to change class sizes?

There has been considerable research on examination of teaching large classes. This research has looked at the relative merits of group work and teacher-centered activities, the effect of class size on learning, and individualization.

There have been many articles and books on activities and techniques for large classes (Coleman, 1989), and on the principles of group work. Good curriculum design must take account of research and theory so that it provides the best possible conditions for learning that the state of the art allows.

Some of the major constraints investigated by research and analysis include the time available, cultural background, the effect of the first language on language learning and special purposes. The following section looks at time as an example of an important constraint in the environment, and provides information that would be useful in helping to plan the length of a course. This investigation of the time constraint provides a model of the application of the steps in environment analysis that can be applied to other constraints.

Topic-031: Steps in Environment Analysis

The steps in environment analysis can be as follows:

Step 1: Brainstorm and then systematically consider the range of environment factors that will affect the course.

Step 2: Choose the most important factors (not more than five) and rank them, putting the most important first.

Step 3: Decide what information you need to fully take account of the factor. The information can come from investigation of the environment and from research and theory.

Step 4: Consider the effects of each factor on the design of the course.

Step 5: Go through steps 1, 2, 3, and 4 again.

Environment analysis involves looking at the local and wider situation to make sure that the course will fit and meet the local requirements. There is considerable research data on many of the important environment factors including class size, motivation, learners of mixed proficiency, and special purpose goals. Good environment analysis draws on both analysis of the environment and application of

previous research and theory. In some models of curriculum design, environment analysis is included in needs analysis.

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NEEDS ANALYSIS -I

Topic-032: Introduction to Needs Analysis

The aim of this lecture is to critically examine what needs to be learned and what the learners want to learn. Needs analysis is directed mainly at the goals and content of a course. It examines what the learners know already and what they need to know. Needs analysis makes sure that the course will contain relevant and useful things to learn. Good needs analysis involves asking the right questions and finding the answers in the most effective way.

One of the basic assumptions of curriculum development is that a sound educational program should be based on an analysis of learners' needs. Procedures used to collect information about learners' needs are known as needs analysis. Needs analysis, as a distinct and necessary phase in planning educational programs, emerged in the 1960s as a part of the systems approach to curriculum development. It was a part of the prevalent philosophy of educational accountability. In this lesson, we will examine approaches to needs analysis and consider the purposes of needs analysis, the nature of needs, whom needs analysis is intended for, who the target population is, who collects information, what procedures can be used, and how the information collected can be used?

Topic-033: The Purposes of Needs Analysis

Needs analysis in language teaching may be used for a number of different purposes, for example:

- To find out what language skills a learner needs in order to perform a particular role, such as sales manager, tour guide, or university student.
- To help determine if an existing course adequately addresses the needs of potential students.
- To determine which students from a group are most in need of training in particular language skills.
- To identify a change of direction that people in a reference group feel important.
- To identify a gap between what students are able to do and what they need to be able to do.
- To collect information about a particular problem learners are experiencing.

Topic-034: What are Needs?

The term 'needs' is not as straightforward as it might appear, and hence the term is sometimes used to refer to wants, desires, demands, expectation, motivations, lacks, constraints, and requirements. Needs are often described in terms of a linguistic deficiency, that is, as describing the difference between what a learner can presently do in a language and what he or she should be able to do. This suggests that needs have

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objective reality. Porcher (1977, as in Brindley, 1984) offers a different perspective: -Need is not a thing that exists and might be encountered ready-made on the street. It is a thing that is constructed, the center of conceptual networks and the product of a number of epistemological choices (which are not innocent themselves, of course).¹

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What is identified as a *need* is dependent on judgment and reflects the interests and values of those making such a judgment. Teachers, learners, employers, parents, and other stakeholders may thus all have different views as to what needs are. For example, in considering the needs of immigrants, representatives of the majority population may see the immigrants' needs as achieving cultural and linguistic assimilation as quickly as possible and hence may want a needs analysis to identify the language skills immigrants require surviving, and ultimately assimilating into the dominant culture.

Topic-035: The Users of Needs Analysis

A needs analysis may be conducted for a variety of different users. For example, in conducting a needs analysis to help revise the secondary school English curriculum in a country, the end users include:

- Curriculum officers in the ministry of education who may wish to use the information to evaluate the adequacy of existing syllabus, curriculum, and materials.
- Teachers who will teach from the new curriculum.
- Learners who will be taught from the curriculum.
- Writers who are preparing new textbooks.
- Testing personnel who are involved in developing end-of-school assessments.
- Staff of tertiary institutions who are interested in knowing what the expected level of the existing students will be and what problems they face.

With small-scale needs analysis such as that carried out by a single teacher on his or her class, the audience might consist of the teacher, other teachers, and the program coordinator. In cases of large-scale needs analysis, there will be multiple audiences for the results of a needs analysis. Determining the likely audiences is an important first step in planning a needs analysis in order to ensure that the information they need is obtained and that the needs analysis will have the impact it is designed to have.

Topic-036: The Target Population

The target population in a needs analysis refers to the people about whom information will be collected. Typically, in language programs there will be language learners or potential language learners, but others are also often involved depending on whether they can provide information useful in meeting the purposes of the needs analysis. For example, in conducting a needs analysis to determine the focus of an English program in public secondary schools in an EFL context, the target population might include:

- policymakers
- ministry of education officials
- teachers
- students
- academics

- employers

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- vocational training specialists
- parents
- influential individuals and pressure groups
- academic specialists
- community agencies

In determining the target population, an important issue is that of sampling. In some cases, the population is small enough for every learner to be included in the sample. In other cases, this approach is not feasible and so decisions must be made about the size of the sample to be included in a needs analysis. Sampling involves asking a portion of the potential population instead of the total population and seeks to create a sample that is representative of the total population. Elley (1984) points out that a number of factors influence the approach to sampling, such as the homogeneity of the population in terms of the kinds of skills, attitudes, or knowledge being sought or the need to study subgroups within the sample - for example, based on sex, language group, or other factors. Where the target population is large, specialized advice is often needed to determine what approach to sampling best suits the purpose of the study and the sources of information available.

NEEDS ANALYSIS -II

Topic-037: Administering the Needs Analysis

Planning a needs analysis involves deciding who will administer the needs analysis and collect and analyze the results. Needs analyses vary in their scope and demands, from a survey of a whole school population in a country to a study of a group of thirty learners in a single institution. Sometimes a team of personnel is assembled specifically for the purpose of doing the analysis; at other times two or three interested teachers may be the only ones involved. In some language programs, informal needs analysis is a part of a teacher's ongoing responsibilities.

Topic-038: Procedures for Conducting Needs Analysis

A variety of procedures can be used in conducting needs analysis and the kind of information obtained is often dependent on the type of procedure selected. Since, any one source of information is likely to be incomplete or partial, a triangular approach (i.e., for collecting information two or more different sources of information should be sought). For example, when a needs analysis of the writing problems encountered by foreign students enrolled in American universities is conducted, information could be obtained from the following sources:

- Samples of student writing
- Test data on student performance
- Reports by teachers on typical problems students face
- Opinions of experts
- Information from students via interviews and questionnaires
- Analysis of textbooks teaching academic writing
- Survey or related literature
- Examples of writing programs from other institutions
- Examples of writing assignments given to first-year university students

Topic-039: Task Analysis and Case Studies

This refers to analysis of the kinds of tasks the learners will have to carry out in English in a future occupational or educational setting and assessment of the linguistic characteristics and demands of the tasks. For example, a hotel employee might have to perform the following tasks in English:

- Greet hotel guests

- Inquire about their accommodation needs

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- Inform them of accommodation available at the hotel
- Help them make a suitable choice of accommodation
- Handle check-in procedures

The emphasis of target situation analysis is on the nature and effect of target language communications in particular situations (for example, in offices, on assembly lines, in meeting rooms, in content-area classrooms). Expert analysis of communication establishes standards against which current performance can be gauged. Once target tasks have been identified, their linguistic characteristics are determined as a basis for designing a language course or training materials.

Topic-040: Designing the Needs Analysis

Designing a needs analysis involves choosing from among various options discussed above and selecting those that are likely to give a comprehensive view of learners' needs and that represent the interests of the different stakeholders involved. Decisions have to be made on the practical procedures involved in collecting, organizing, analyzing, and reporting the information collected. It is important to make sure that the needs analysis does not produce an information overload. There needs to be a clear rationale for collecting different kinds of information that will actually be used. The procedures of needs analysis are:

- Literature survey
- Analysis of a wide range of survey questionnaires
- Contact with others who had conducted similar surveys
- Interviews with teachers to determine goals
- Identification of participating departments
- Presentation of project proposal to participating departments and identification of liaison person in each department
- Development of a pilot student and staff questionnaire
- Review of questionnaires by colleagues
- Piloting of questionnaires
- Selection of staff and student subjects
- Developing a schedule for collecting data
- Administration of questionnaires

Topic-041: Making Use of the Information Obtained

The results of a needs analysis will generally consist of information taken from several different sources and summarized in the form of ranked lists of different kinds. For example, it might result in lists of the following kind:

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- Situations in which English is frequently used
- Situations in which difficulties are encountered
- Comments most often made by people on learners' performance
- Frequencies with which different transactions are carried out
- Perceived difficulties with different aspects of language use - preferences for different kinds of activities in teaching
- Frequencies of errors made in different types of situations or activities on common communication problems in different situations
- Suggestions and opinions about different aspects of learners' problems
- Frequencies of linguistic items or units in different texts or situations

Topic-042: Evaluating Needs Analysis

Needs analysis is a kind of assessment and thus can be evaluated by considering its reliability, validity and practicality. Reliable needs analysis involves using well-thought-out, standardized tools that are applied systematically. Instead of observing people performing tasks that learners will have to do after the course, it is better to systematize the observation by using a checklist or by recording and apply standardized analysis procedures.

Valid needs analysis involves looking at what is relevant and important. Consideration of the type of need that is being looked at and the type of information that is being gathered is important. Before needs analysis begins, it may be necessary to do a ranking activity to decide what type of need should get priority in the needs analysis investigation. The worst decision would be to let practicality dominate by deciding to investigate what is easiest to investigate.

Topic-043: Example in Need Analysis

The example is taken from Richards's book (2001) and it involves NNES (non-native English speaking students).. In Auckland University, New Zealand, a needs analysis was conducted and the purpose of this analysis was to understand whether the current courses meet the needs of the students. It is conducted in 1997 in the largest university of New Zealand where the population was roughly 26000. During that year the strength of non-native English speaking student was increasing and the university faced the challenge to enhance the language proficiency of newly arrived students. In order to conduct needs analysis, the university got insight from previous surveys as well as two new questionnaires were designed.

These questionnaires mainly addressed the issues and problems faced by the students. With the help of this survey, the university gathered information about the problems faced by ESL learners. The questionnaires were used to gather demographic information and information about different language skills. In the light of this survey, some suggestions were made which focused on developing reading habits among NNES. Some changes in the syllabus were also proposed in the light of this survey.

Topic-044: Issues in Needs Analysis

There are several issues in needs analysis that have been the focus of continuing debate. Three are as follows:

- Common core and specialised language
- Narrow focus – wide focus
- Critical needs analysis

We see that needs analysis makes sure that a course will be relevant and satisfying to the learners. This is such a basic requirement that it is worth giving a careful thought. To neglect the needs of the learners is to run the risk of producing a course that does not meet the basic requirements.

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TWENTY PRINCIPLES -I

Topic-045: Introduction to Twenty Principles-I

This lesson aims to critically analyze how learning can be encouraged with the framework of language curriculum design. The purpose of this lesson is to provide a sensible basis to guide teachers and help them design courses based on certain principles.

These principles must be based on research and theory, and must be general enough to allow variety and flexibility in their application to suit a wide range of conditions in which language is taught. The principles have been divided into three groups. These three groups represent the three major divisions of the central circle in the curriculum design diagram.

Topic-046: Introduction to Twenty Principles-II

The first group of principles deals with **content and sequencing**. These principles are concerned with what goes into a language course and the order in which language items appear in the course. The aim of these principles is to make sure that the learners are gaining something useful from the course. It is possible to run a language course which is full of interesting activities and introduces the learners to new language items, but provides a very poor return for the time invested in it. This poor return can occur because many of the lessons do not contain anything new to learn, because the new items have very little value in the ordinary use of the language, or because they set out interference conditions which result in a step backwards in learning rather than a step forwards.

The second group of principles deals with **format and presentation**. These principles are concerned with what actually happens in the classroom and during the learning. Most practically, they relate to the kinds of activities used in the course and the ways in which learners' process the course material. It is in this aspect of curriculum design that teachers may have their greatest influence on the course.

The third group of principles deals with **monitoring and assessment** and to some degree evaluation. In each of these groups, the principles have been ranked in order of their importance i.e. the first principle in the group is the most important of that group; the second principle is the next most important and so on.

Topic-047: First Group of Twenty Principles: Content and Sequencing (Principles 1-2)

Content and sequencing

Principle 1: Frequency

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A language course should provide the best possible coverage of language in use through the inclusion of items that occur frequently in the language so that learners get the best return for their learning effort.

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Many years of research on vocabulary frequency, the frequency of grammatical structures, and English for Special Purposes (ESP) has resulted in a substantial amount of information about the frequency of occurrence of various types of items and of the coverage of text provided by knowledge of the most frequent items. The most striking figures are of vocabulary. The data on vocabulary guide us that knowing 10 items provides coverage of 25% of written text, 100 items 50 %, 1,000 items 70% and 2,000 items over 80%.

It is possible to state a few general rules about frequency, coverage and types of items:

- A small number of high-frequency items will cover a large proportion of a text.
- After the few most frequent items are known, a very large number of low-frequency items must be known to cover the remainder of the text.

These rules can be applied to the selection of material for language courses in the following ways:

- A language course should give most attention to the high-frequency items of the language.
- Low-frequency items should be dealt with only when the high frequency items have been sufficiently learned. It may be more efficient to teach the learners strategies for learning and coping with low frequency items rather than for the teacher to present the low-frequency items themselves.

Principle 2: Strategies and autonomy

A language course should train learners how to learn a language so that they can become effective and independent language learners.

There has been considerable research on the characteristics of good language learners (Wong Fillmore, 1983 and Naiman, 1996) and on the strategies that can lead to effective language learning. Learning and coping strategies can include the following:

- Learning strategies (deep processing of language and content, vocabulary learning cards, word part strategies, mnemonic strategies, e.g. keyword, predicting, notetaking strategies)
- Gaining input (peer interaction strategies, strategies for controlling the teacher)

Topic-048: First Group of Twenty Principles: Content and Sequencing (Principles 3-4)

Principle 3: Spaced retrieval

Learners should have increasingly spaced, repeated opportunity to give attention to wanted items in a variety of contexts.

The evidence to support this principle comes from studies of the effects of repetition on learning (Kachroo, 1962; Saragi *et al.*, 1978) and the levels of processing theory (Craik and Tulving, 1975).

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A few course books check to make sure that they provide repetition but these are exceptional. It is too difficult and time-consuming for an individual teacher without the text available on a computer to do

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such checking. The simplest and possibly the most useful way to check is to test frequently whether wanted items are learned.

Another possibility is to choose a small group of very useful, but likely to be neglected items and to keep a note of the repetition of these. The group should probably not contain more than 20 items to make checking manageable.

Principle 4: Language System

The language focus of a course needs to be on generalizable features of the language system.

This principle does not imply that all of the attention of the teacher and learners is directed towards formal features of the language. What it means is that where attention is directed to language features these features should be predominantly regular features. A good command over these features will enable the learners to make —creative use of the language. That is, to say or write and understand things that they have not met or produced before, and to understand things that they have not met or produced before. If the teacher wants to check that this principle is being applied in a particular lesson, then the teacher should ask this question, –Will today’s work help the learners to deal with tomorrow’s task? If the answer is yes, then the principle is being applied.

To check if the principle is being applied in a course, a teacher needs to look at the learning goal of a particular lesson and then to evaluate that goal in terms of the uses that the learners will make of the language. This evaluation needs to check that the goal of the lesson is allowing the learner to make the widest possible use of the language features involved. If a course does not do this well, teachers can change the focus of the course by adapting the exercises and activities.

Topic-049: First Group of Twenty Principles: Content and Sequencing (Principle -5-6)

Principle 5: Keep moving forward

A language course should progressively cover useful language items, skills and strategies.

This principle means that the course should have explicit language teaching goals and that there should be some way to ensure that there is opportunity for the goals to be achieved.

This principle is applied in a variety of ways by different language teaching methods. Aural-oral courses and many others assign particular structures, functions, or vocabulary to particular lessons. Good examples of this can be found in courses like the Cambridge English Course which lists the items to be learned in each lesson in its very detailed table of contents.

In order to check if a course is progressively covering useful items, skills and strategies, it is necessary to have lists of useful items to check the course against. This point is taken up in more detail in the section on attainment goals.

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The most effective way of making sure that the principle of progressive coverage is applied is to make sure that each learning task has a goal which fits to the plan for the course. Before using a new task, teachers should decide what the learning goal of the task is. When doing this, it should be remembered

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that learning goals can include language items, content material (ideas), skill elements including the development of fluency with language and skill items that have already been met before, and discourse features such as text structure or dialogue maintenance strategies. It is often useful to inform learners about the learning goal of the task. If a course includes activities that do not have an obvious learning goal or that have a goal that does not fit the overall goals of the course, it is worth adapting or replacing the task accordingly. An additional way of keeping the course directed towards learning goals is to have regular goal-directed tests. These can have a positive effect on the teaching and learning.

Principle 6: Teach-ability

The teaching of language items should take account of the most favorable sequencing of these items and should take account of when the learners are most ready to learn them.

Pienemann et al. (1988) and others have conducted research into the sequence in which language items are learned in second language acquisition and into the effects of this sequence on teaching a second language.

The psychological complexity of a structure depends on the amount of rearranging that is needed when the message that the speaker wants to communicate is expressed in language. For example, if a speaker wants to ask someone a question about the arrival of a friend (the message), it is necessary to express this idea in language: —When will John arrive?‖ This sentence however has a particular word order which has to be learned. We know from studies of young native speakers of English that it is likely that the order of ideas in the message is: —John arrives when?‖ Between this order and —When will John arrive?‖ two rearrangements are needed. This means that the sentence —When will John arrive?‖ is more psychologically complex than —Will John come?‖ Notice also that the rearrangement needed to produce —Will John come?‖ is also needed, along with another rearrangement, to produce —When will John come?‖ The learning of the rearrangement to produce —Will John come?‖ can be considered a prerequisite to learning —When will John come?‖

On the basis of this kind of analysis and on evidence from second language acquisition studies, Pienemann and Johnston (1987) have made a sequenced list of structures. The sequence of the items in the list is the same as the sequence in which second-language learners learn them.

Topic-050: First Group of Twenty Principles: Content and Sequencing (Principle 7-8)

Principle 7: Learning Burden

The course should help the learners to make the most effective use of previous knowledge.

Much of the previous knowledge that is brought to second-language learning comes from the learners' first language. The effect of this knowledge on second-language learning has been a matter of debate with some arguing that the first language has a major effect on second-language learning (Lado, 1957; Ringbom, 1987) and others arguing that second-language learning like first-language learning occurs

without the influence of other languages.

Part of the reason for the debate has been that second-language learning occurs in a variety of circumstances. Where the language is learned as a foreign language with little opportunity for contact and

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use outside the classroom, the effect of the first language is more noticeable. Where the classroom is only one of a range of sources for second-language input as with second-language learning of English in countries such as New Zealand, Australia, Britain and the United States, first-language influence is less noticeable.

There is plenty of evidence however those aspects of the first language can help learning. This help can occur at all levels within the language, with pronunciation, grammar, vocabulary and discourse. It can also occur with aspects of language skill and with content knowledge.

Principle 8: Interference

The items in a language course should be sequenced so that items which are learned together have a positive effect on each other for learning, and so that interference effects are avoided.

Research has shown that items which have loose indirect connections with each other (indirect free associates) are learned more effectively if they are learned at the same time. Items which have strong meaning relationships (opposites, near synonyms, free associates) interfere with each other and thus make learning more difficult (Higa, 1963; Nation, 2000). In view of this evidence and the very large body of evidence on paired associate learning, it is surprising that courses still present opposites and alternative expressions of the same idea (near synonyms) together. Unfortunately the order of items within the course reflects the associations in the curriculum designer's mind rather than what will help learning.

The easiest solution to this sequencing problem is to let the occurrence of items in naturally occurring spoken or written texts determine the order in which they occur in the course. This takes the control of sequencing away from the curriculum designer and thus avoids the word association that the curriculum designer may bring to sequencing.

If a course book presents closely related items together, a teacher can attempt to overcome this by helping the learners master the most useful of these before the pairs or groups of items are met. So if hot and cold are presented together in the course book, the teacher can help the learners master hot before the book introduces hot and cold. If one item in a pair is already well known, interference is unlikely to occur. The more secure the learning of the first item, the less chance there is of interference when the second item is met.

TWENTY PRINCIPLES -II

Topic-051: Second Group of Twenty Principles: Format and Presentation (Principle 1-2)

Principle 1: Motivation

As much as possible, the learners should be interested and excited about learning the language and they should come to value this learning.

This principle stresses the importance of the learners' attitude to what they are studying. Motivation is a very important determinant of the amount of time, involvement and effect that learners give to learning. The best motivation is –intrinsic, springing from within the learner, rather than —extrinsic, coming from some outside integrative or instrumental reward.

Intrinsic motivation can develop as a result of extrinsic motivation. Learning for reasons of gain can result in a genuine love of learning and involvement in the activity. If learners are not interested in learning, it is worthwhile beginning by looking at ways to attract them and involve them in learning. The following ways can be considered in this context:

- Make the subject matter of the lessons relevant and interesting to them. Surveys of wants and attitudes can help gather information to guide this.
- Give the learners some control and decision-making over what they do. A negotiated or partly negotiated syllabus is one way to do this.
- Set tasks with clear outcomes and with a high possibility of the learners completing them successfully.
- Set many short achievement tests to encourage the learners to work and to show them that they can be successful learners.
- Show the learners how to keep records of their progress so that they can see their continuing success. These records can include speed reading graphs, standardised dictation scores, number of graded readers completed and movement through the levels, scores on split-information tasks and writing-accuracy graphs.
- Help the learners become autonomous learners (Crabbe, 1993; Cotterall, 2000) by explaining the rationale and goals of particular classroom activities, by the teacher modelling autonomous behaviour and by learners modelling autonomous behaviour for each other.
- Reward learners' efforts through publication in a class newsletter, through praise and through attention from the teacher.
- Use tasks that contain built-in challenges such as competition, time pressure, memory and hidden puzzle-like solutions (Nation, 1989).
- Encourage learners to set achievable and realistic individual goals.

Principle 2: Four Strands

A course should include a roughly even balance of the four strands of meaning-focused input, language-focused learning, meaning-focused output and fluency activities.

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This principle is concerned with the relative amount of time given to the four main strands of a language course – meaning-focused input; language focused learning, meaning-focused output and fluency development.

The rough rule of thumb is that on average equal time should be given to each of these four strands in the total language experience of the learner. That means that time in class and out of class can be considered if, during these times, the learner is gaining appropriate language activity that can be classified as fitting into these strands. For example, if a learner is doing a lot of graded reading outside class time and is gaining truly comprehensible input outside of class time, this would mean that the time allocation for meaning-focused input could be met outside class and so the time in class could be given to language-focused learning, meaning-focused output and fluency development.

Topic-052: Second Group of Twenty Principles: Format and Presentation (Principle 3)

Principle 3: Comprehensible input

There should be substantial quantities of interesting comprehensible receptive activity in both listening and reading.

In a very practical and well-conducted experiment, Elley and Mangubhai (1981) replaced part of drill-based English lessons for Fijian learners of English with self-directed reading of interesting children's books. Eight months later, with four English classes per week, it was found that the learners in the experimental group had made 15 months' progress on a variety of proficiency measures of English. The large amounts of reading that the learners did were not in addition to their usual English course. It replaced about one-third of the usual course. Other experiments, although not as large-scale or as well-designed as the Elley and Mangubhai study, indicate a similar effect for large quantities of listening. The theoretical justification for such an approach to language learning rests on the idea that learners need to build up and are capable of building up an understanding of the language system before they are called on to produce language (Nord, 1980).

The requirements of such an approach to learning are that the learners have access to large quantities of interesting reading or listening material at a roughly suitable level and that although the use of such material may be monitored by the teacher it is not the excuse for quantities of carefully checked follow-up exercises. There are various ways in which teachers can build up class sets (not all of the same title) of reading texts. Here are some of them:

- Seek funding from an embassy of an English-speaking country to finance such a library. A request like this has more chance of being successful if it contains a list of the required books, their total cost, and information about where they can be obtained.
- Get each learner to buy one text each and then organise a system for temporarily exchanging the books amongst the members of the class so that each learner can read the books belonging to other learners in the class.
- Build up a reading box of material taken from newspapers, written by learners, written by a group

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of co-operating teachers, and put on cards or in plastic bags.

- Place a book in a glass-covered case. Each day turn one page so that the learners can read more of the story each day.

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Topic-053: Second Group of Twenty Principles: Format and Presentation (Principle 4)

Principle 4: Fluency

A language course should provide activities aimed at increasing the fluency with which the learners can use the language they already know, both receptively and productively.

Fluency is a part of the skill goal of language learning. Fluency activities do not aim to teach new language items but aim to give the learner ready access to what is already known.

The importance of fluency in language use is highlighted in first-language research on the relationship between vocabulary learning and reading comprehension. One of the several possible explanations for a lack of success of many studies is showing that pre-teaching vocabulary results in improved comprehension that is not sufficient just to know the meanings of new words in a text. It is also necessary to be able to retrieve these meanings quickly and fluently when their forms are met in the text. Many learners of English as a foreign language experience this difficulty. Their language knowledge of vocabulary and sentence patterns may be substantial (the result of several years' learning) but their ability to access and use this knowledge fluently is extremely low.

Fluency is often contrasted with accuracy (Brumfit, 1984), and is seen as a way of making consciously studied material become available for less conscious use. Ellis (1987) sees fluency activities as a way of making features of learners' –careful style of language use become available in other less monitored styles.

Fluency activities depend on several conditions to achieve their goal. In various techniques, learners work in pairs with one acting as the speaker and the other as listener. The speaker talks for four minutes on a topic while her partner listens. Then the pairs change with each speaker giving the same information to a new partner in three minutes, followed by a further change and a two-minute talk.

From the point of view of fluency, this activity has these important features. First, the user is encouraged to process a large quantity of language. This is done by allowing the speaker to perform without interruption and by having the speaker make three deliveries of the talk. Second, the demands of the activity are limited to a much smaller set than would occur in most uncontrolled learning activities. This can be done by the teacher's control as is the case in most receptive fluency activities such as reading graded readers or listening to stories, or can be done by choice, planning or repetition by the learner. In activity the speaker choose the ideas, language items and way of organizing the talk. The four-and three-minute deliveries allow the speaker to bring these aspects well under control, so that fluency can become the learning goal of the activity. Third, the learner is helped to reach a high level of performance.

Topic-054: Second Group of Twenty Principles: Format and Presentation (Principle 5-6)

Principle 5: Output

The learners should be pushed to produce the language in both speaking and writing over a range of discourse types.

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While no writer about language learning would deny the value of large quantities of comprehensible input, there are several who say that it is not sufficient in itself for language learning. While input is undoubtedly very important and should precede output, there are strong arguments for making sure that learners are given the chance to produce language. Swain (1985) argues that the language knowledge needed to comprehend language is not the same as the language knowledge needed to produce language. For example, a learner of English needs only minimal knowledge of the article and preposition systems of English in order to gain a satisfactory understanding of spoken or written English. If the learner wants to speak or write; however, then there are decisions about the choice of articles (or their omission) and the choice of appropriate prepositions that need to be made. These decisions require much more knowledge for language production than they do for language reception. Swain describes this difference as having to move —from a purely semantic analysis of the language to a syntactic analysis of it (1985).

There are clearly other differences too. Speaking and writing require the retrieval of form and the development of productive skills. Biber's (1990) research shows the different occurrences and clustering of formal features in different text types. To gain a balanced coverage of the formal features of the language, it is necessary to make use of language across a representative range of discourse types.

Courses which aim at all four skills can be checked to see that about 25 per cent of the total learning time is given to activities involving language production. It is also worthwhile checking that either writing or speaking is not being neglected at the expense of the other. It is also worth checking that learners have to produce language in both formal and informal settings, for transactional and interactional purposes and in a variety of social roles and power relationships. Munby (1978) provides a useful list of equal and unequal relationships.

Principle 6: Deliberate Learning

The course should include language-focused learning in the sound system, vocabulary, grammar and discourse areas.

Language-focused learning can occur when the learners' attention is on language items not because the learner wants to receive or communicate a message in a normal way, but because the learner wants to learn some part of the language system. Language-focused attention can be directed towards the sound system, the spelling system, the vocabulary, the grammar system and discourse patterns.

Reviews of research on language-focused learning (Ellis, 1990; Spada, 1997) show that some language-focused learning in a language course has the following effects:

- It can help learners overcome barriers to their language development.
- It can have a positive effect on meaning-focused learning.

In general, courses containing appropriate amounts and types of language focused learning achieve better results than courses which do not include such learning.

The following activities are all examples of language-focused learning:

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- Dictation
- Listening for particular words or phrases
- Repetition and substitution drills
- Memorizing dialogues and poems
- Analysing cohesive devices
- Learning to guess from context clues
- Sentence-completion activities
- Sentence combining and transformation
- Guided composition
- Distinguishing minimal pairs
- Focusing on sounds, intonation and stress
- Learning vocabulary on cards
- Parsing
- Re-arranging words in the right order to make sentences
- Getting feedback on errors

Most courses need to reduce the amount of language-focused learning rather than increase it. Generally it should take up about 25 per cent of the time in a language course. For most items, language-focused practice does not lead directly to the implicit knowledge of language that is needed for normal communication. It is therefore very important in a language course that language-focused learning is seen as a support rather than a substitute for learning through meaning-focused activities.

Topic-055: Second Group of Twenty Principles: Format and Presentation (Principle 7-8)

Principle 7: Time on Task

As much time as possible should be spent on using and focusing on the second language.

This principle is based on the research finding that one of the best indicators of how much will be learned is how long the learners spend on appropriate learning activities. The more time learners spend on language learning, the more they learn. The principle gains some support from the correlation between lengths of time spent living in a country where the foreign language is spoken and proficiency in the language.

Research on the proportion of time the teacher uses the foreign language in the classroom shows that (1) teachers have an inaccurate idea of how much information they give in the foreign language and how much in the first language, (2) learners are not worried to have all the lessons completely in the foreign language, (3) if there is a policy to maximize the use of the foreign language and if teachers receive some training on how to do this then teachers can devote all of the class time to the foreign language without using the first language.

Principle 8: Depth of Processing

Learners should process the items to be learned as deeply and as thoughtfully as possible.

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The -levels of processing hypothesis (Craik and Lockhart, 1972) proposes that the single most important factor in learning is the quality of mental activity in the mind of the learners at the moment that learning takes place.

Items that are repeated without thoughtful attention will not be learned as quickly or retained as long as those that are related to past experience result in some meaning-directed effort, or are thoughtfully analyzed. Another way of expressing this principle is to say that —the quantity of learning depends on the quality of mental activity at the moment of learning.

Many teachers apply this principle without really being aware of it. They do it to keep the attention and interest of their learners. Applying the principle only requires a small change to normal teaching procedures.

Topic-056: Second Group of Twenty Principles: Format and Presentation (Principle 9-10)

Principle 9: Integrative Motivation

The course should be presented so that the learners have the most favorable attitudes to the language, users of the language, use of the language, the teacher's skill in teaching the language and their chances of success in learning the language.

Recent research and thinking about second-language learning have given an important role to —affective factors. Affective factors refer to feelings and attitudes and include such things as motivation, shyness about speaking a strange language (or —language anxiety), opinions about native speakers of the second language and attitudes towards the teacher. If learners have negative attitudes towards the language and its users, or if they feel personally threatened by having to use the language, this will make it difficult for them to progress in learning the language.

Some of these affective factors may be influenced by the teacher and by the way the course is organized. For example, if the learners are confident users of current technology but the teacher does not make use of this technology, learners may develop unfavorable attitudes to the course. This may be one reason for the teacher to adapt the course book.

Among the range of motivation factors, the two that have received the most attention from researchers are **integrative motivation** and **instrumental motivation**. While the interests of researchers have not always had immediate relevance to teachers, Dörnyei (2001) addresses the question of how teachers can motivate learners and suggests that motivational teaching practice has four principal aspects:

- Creating basic motivational conditions
- Generating initial student motivation
- Maintaining and promoting motivation

Principle 10: Learning Style

There should be opportunity for learners to work with the learning material in ways that most suit their individual learning style.

Learners approach activities in a variety of ways depending on their personality, their previous learning experience, their expectations of how they will be tested on what they learn, and their view of the nature of the learning task.

Not all learners will feel comfortable with the same way of learning, and learners may learn more effectively if they can choose a style of learning that most suits them. An effectively designed language course allows for these individual differences and provides choices and flexibility in the way activities can be done. The following list suggests some of the choices that could be made available:

- **Group size:** learning individually or with other learners
- **Speed and intensity:** learning at a slow, thoughtful pace or at a fast and intensive pace
- **Medium:** learning through aural input or written input
- **Representation of information:** learning through language or through pictorial or diagrammatic representation
- **Mental process:** learning holistically or through analysis
- **Understanding:** learning through doing or through understanding
- **Use of first language:** learning through translation or through the second language
- **Source of control:** learning through activities planned and provided by the teacher or through self-access and negotiated procedures.

A course should take account of individual differences and learning styles in two ways: (1) by providing opportunities for learners to work to their strengths, and (2) by providing opportunity and training for learners to try other ways of learning. An effective language course not only produces effective learning but also produces effective learners.

Topic-057: Third Group of Twenty Principles: Monitoring and Assessment (Principles 1-2)

Principle 1: Ongoing Needs and Environment Analysis

The selection, gradation, presentation and assessment of the material in a language course should be based on a careful consideration of the learners and their needs, the teaching conditions, and the time and resources available.

This principle stresses the importance of doing environment analysis and needs analysis during the planning of a course. It emphasizes various aspects of language teaching. These aspects are how to select and grade lexical or grammatical material. Overall, this principle analyzes that how well a language program caters various needs of the learners. It also touches upon the element of time and resources. In order to monitor a program, we, as language teachers, need to ensure the time and resource element.

Principle 2: Feedback

Learners should receive helpful feedback which will allow them to improve the quality of their language use.

Feedback is a term from communication theory. After a message has been sent, the sender may receive information about various aspects of the message. Did the message say what it was supposed to say? Was it clearly received? Did it bring about the required action or response in the person who received it? All this information going back to the sender is called feedback. The receiver of a message may also get feedback about the degree of success of his understanding of the message. Feedback from language use can come from the sender herself, from the people who receive the message, and from an observer of the communication process.

Topic-058: Using the List of Principles

The previous discussion of the twenty principles has attempted to explain the principles and to indicate their application in curriculum design. The list of principles, however, has a much wider range of uses:

- It can be used to guide the design of language teaching courses and lessons.
- It can be used to evaluate existing courses and lessons.
- It can be used to help teachers integrate and contextualise information gained from keeping up with developments in their field. For example, when reading articles from journals such as *TESOL Quarterly*, *Language Learning*, *Applied Linguistics* or *RELC Journal*, teachers can try to decide what principle is being addressed by the article and how the article helps in the application of a principle.

like –Is this a good technique?||, –Should I use group work?||, and –Do my learners need to speak a lot in class?

- It can act as one of many possible reference points in teacher training courses.

Lesson-11

PLANNING GOALS AND LEARNING OUTCOMES - I

Topic-059: Planning Goals and Learning Outcomes

Needs analysis seeks to provide answers to the questions regarding the needs and requirements of the students and situation analysis seeks to identify the role of contextual factors in implementing curriculum change. In this lesson, we will consider another crucial dimension of decision making in curriculum planning i.e. determining the goals and outcomes of a program.

Several key assumptions about goals characterize the curriculum approach to educational planning. These can be summarized as follows:

- People are generally motivated to pursue specific goals.
- The use of goals in teaching improves the effectiveness of teaching and learning.
- A program will be effective to the extent that its goals are sound and clearly described.

These principles appear to be self-evident and uncontroversial. Most language programs describe their goals in terms of aims and objectives. The nature of aims and objectives, however, is not necessarily straightforward because they refer to knowledge, skills, and values that educational planners believe learners' need to develop. While deciding on goals, planners choose from alternatives based on assumptions about the role of teaching and of a curriculum. Therefore, formulating goal is not an objective scientific enterprise but a judgment call. For this reason, the nature of goals in the design of educational programs has aroused considerable controversy and debate in the curriculum literature and continues to do so.

Topic-060: The Ideology of the Curriculum: Academic Rationalization

In developing goals for educational programs, curriculum planners draw on their understanding both of the present and long-term needs of learners and society as well as the planners' beliefs and ideologies about schools, learners, and teachers. These beliefs and values provide the philosophical underpinnings for educational programs and the justification for the kinds of aims they contain. At any given time, however, a number of competing or complementary perspectives are available concerning the focus of the curriculum.

This justification for the aims of curriculum stresses the intrinsic value of the subject matter and its role in developing the learner's intellect, humanistic values, and rationality. The content matter of different subjects is viewed as the basis for a curriculum, and mastery of content is an end in itself rather than a means to solve social problems or providing efficient means to achieve the goals of policy makers. The role of schools is to provide access to the major achievements of a particular cultural tradition and to know the insights gained from studying enduring fields of knowledge. Academic rationalism is sometimes used to justify the inclusion of certain foreign languages in school curricula, where they are taught not as tools for communication but as an aspect of social studies.

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This educational philosophy emphasizes the practical needs of learners and society, and the role of an educational program in producing learners who are economically productive. People can improve themselves and their environment through a process of rational planning. Social, economic, and other needs of society can be identified and planned by task analysis, by forming objectives for each task, and by teaching skills as discrete units (Uhrmacher, 1993). It is an ends-means approach. Bobbitt (1990), who was one of the founders of curriculum theory, advocated this view of the curriculum. Curriculum development was seen as based on scientific principles, and its practitioners were —educational engineers whose job was to discover the total range of habits, skills, abilities, forms of thought. Bobbitt concluded that an appropriate metaphor for curriculum development was factory and production. In language teaching, this philosophy leads to an emphasis on practical and functional skills in a foreign or second language.

Socioeconomic ideology stresses the economic needs of society as a justification for the teaching of English. Successful economies in the twenty-first century are increasingly knowledge-based, and the bulk of the world's knowledge is in the English language. In a recent debate over standards of English in Japan, poor standards of English were cited as one reason for Japan's economic malaise in the late 1990s.

Topic-062: The Ideology of The Curriculum: Learner Centeredness

This curriculum perspective emphasizes the roles schools and learners can and should play in addressing social injustices and inequality. Curriculum development is not seen as a neutral process. Schools likewise do not present equal opportunities for all (Freire 1972 and Apple 1986) but reflect the general inequalities in society. Schools must engage teachers and students in an examination of important social and personal problems and seek ways to address them. This process is known as "empowerment." Teachers must empower their students so that they can recognize unjust systems of class, race or gender and challenge them. The most persuasive and currently popular representatives of this viewpoint are associated with the movement known as critical theory and critical pedagogy.

Topic-063: The Ideology of the Curriculum Social Constructionism and Cultural Pluralism

This philosophy argues that schools should prepare students to participate in several different cultures and not merely the culture of the dominant social and economic group. This particular philosophy defines the role of schools where there is no inequality on the basis of gender, race or age. Learning is an inclusive process where roles of schools and learners are integrated.

Cultural pluralism defines the role of various cultures and to what extent it is important to look at the culture of the native speakers while designing the course. Cultural pluralism leads to the bilingual education in some parts of the world.

Banks (1983) argues that students in multicultural societies such as the United States need to develop cross-cultural competency or what is sometimes termed intercultural communication.

Lesson-12

PLANNING GOALS AND LEARNING OUTCOMES -II

Topic-064: Stating Curriculum Outcomes: Aims

In curriculum discussions, the terms goal and aim are used interchangeably to refer to a description of the general purposes of a curriculum and objective to refer to a more specific and concrete description of purposes. We will use the terms aim and objective here. An aim refers to a statement of a general change that a program seeks to bring about in learners. The purposes of aim statements are:

- To provide a clear definition of the purposes of a program.
- To provide guidelines for teachers, learners, and material writers.
- To help provide a focus for instruction.

Aims statements reflect the ideology of the curriculum and show how the curriculum will seek to realize it. The following statements describe the aims of teaching English at the primary level in Singapore:

Our pupils learn English in order to:

- communicate effectively in both speech and writing, in everyday situations to meet the demands of society.
- acquire good reading habits to understand, enjoy, and appreciate a wide range of texts including the literature of other cultures.
- develop the ability to express themselves imaginatively and creatively.
- acquire skills to make critical and rational judgments.
- negotiate their own learning goals and evaluate their own progress.
- acquire information and study skills to learn the other subjects taught in English.
- cope effectively and efficiently with change, extended learning tasks, and examinations.
- acquire knowledge for self-development and for fulfilling personal needs and aspirations.

written forms using the English language.

These statements reflect several of the philosophies discussed in the preceding sections. The examples of aim statements are taken from different kinds of language programs.

Topic-065: Stating Curriculum Outcomes: Objectives-I

Aims are very general statements of the goals of a program. They can be interpreted in many different ways. For example, consider the following aim statement:

Students will learn how to write effective business letters for use in the hotel and tourism industries.

Although this provides a clear description of the focus of a program, it does not describe the kinds of business letters students will learn or clarify what is meant by effective business letters. In order to give a

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more precise focus to program goals, aims are often accompanied by statements of more specific purposes. These are known as objectives. (They are also sometimes referred to as instructional objectives or teaching objectives). An objective refers to a statement of specific changes a program seeks to bring about and results from an analysis of the aim into its different components. Objectives generally have the following characteristics:

- They describe what the aim seeks to achieve in terms of smaller units of learning.
- They provide a basis for the organization of teaching activities.
- They describe learning in terms of observable behavior or performance.

The advantages of describing the aims of a course in terms of objectives are:

- They facilitate planning: once objectives have been agreed on course/ planning, materials preparation, textbook selection, and related processes can begin.
- They provide measurable outcomes and thus provide accountability: given a set of objectives, the success or failure of a program to teach the objectives can be measured.
- They are prescriptive: describe how planning should proceed and how to do away with subjective interpretations and personal opinions.

The following statement is an example of an aim:

Students will learn how to understand lectures given in English.

The following statement is an example of an objective:

Students will be able to follow an argument, theme, or thesis of a lecture.

Students will learn how to recognize the following aspects of a lecture: cause-and-effect relationships, comparisons and contrasts premises used in persuasive arguments and supporting details used in persuasive arguments.

Topic-066: Stating Curriculum Outcomes: Objectives-II

Objectives are more specific and descriptive when compared to aims. Objectives have various characteristics. They help to describe learning outcomes, and give clear directions to teacher and students about a particular activity. For example, the objective of an activity given to the students was: *the student can understand and respond to simple questions over the telephone*. To achieve this objective, the students will know how to use useful conversational expressions. A more precise objective would be:

Students will use conversation expressions for greeting people, opening and closing conversations.

Objectives should be feasible, and should describe outcomes that are attainable in the time available

during a course.

The following objective is probably not attainable in a 60-hour English course:

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Students will be able to follow conversations spoken by native speakers.

The following is a more feasible objective:

Students will be able to get the gist of short conversations in simple English on topics related to daily life and leisure.

Topic-067: Criticisms on the Use of Objectives

Although in many institutions the use of objectives in course planning is seen as a way of bringing structure to the process of course planning, the use of objectives either in general form or in the form of behavioral objectives has also attracted some criticism. Rest of this topic will discuss this criticism.

Objectives turn teaching into a technology. It is argued that objectives are linked to an efficiency view of education (one based on the assumption that the most efficient means to an end is justified). There is a danger that curriculum planning becomes a technical exercise of converting statements of needs into objectives. In the process, the broader goals of teaching and learning (e.g., to provide meaningful and worthwhile learning experiences) may be lost.

Comment: This criticism is more applicable to the form of objectives known as behavioral objectives. To ensure that the curriculum addresses educationally important goals, objectives should be included that address meaningful and worthwhile learning experiences. One way to do this is to include objectives that cover both language outcomes and non-language outcomes.

Objectives trivialize teaching and are product-oriented. By assuming that every purpose in teaching can be expressed as an objective, the suggestion is that the only worthwhile goal in teaching is to bring about changes in the students' behavior.

Comment: Objectives need not to be limited to observable outcomes. They can also describe processes and experiences that are seen as an important focus of the curriculum.

Objectives are unsuited to many aspects of language use. Objectives may be suitable for describing the mastery of skills, but less suited to such things as critical thinking, literary appreciation, or negotiation of meaning.

Comment: Objectives can be written in domains such as critical thinking and literary thinking but will focus on the experiences the curriculum will provide rather than specific learning outcomes.

Topic-068: Competency-Based Program Outcomes and the Nature of Competencies

An alternative to the use of objectives in program planning is to describe learning outcomes in terms of competencies, an approach associated with Competency-Based Language Teaching (CBLT). CBLT seeks to make a focus on the outcomes of learning, a central planning stage in the development of language programs.

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Traditionally, in language teaching planners have focused to a large extent on the content of teaching (as reflected in a concern for different types of syllabuses) or on the process of teaching (as reflected in a concern for different types of teaching methods). Critics of this approach argue that this concern with content or process focuses on the means of learning rather than its ends. CBLT shifts the focus to the ends of learning

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rather than the means. As a general educational and training approach, CBLT seeks to improve accountability in teaching through using instruction to measurable outcomes and performance standards.

CBLT first emerged in the United States in the 1970s and was widely adopted in vocationally oriented education and in adult ESL programs. By the end of the 1980s, CBLT had come to be accepted as "the state-of-the-art approach to adult ESL by national policymakers and leaders in curriculum development as well" (Auerbach 1986). In 1986, any refugee in the United States who wished to receive federal assistance had to be enrolled in a competency-based program (Auerbach 1986). CBLT has recently re-emerged in some parts of the world (e.g., Australia) as the major approach to the planning of language programs.

Mrowicki (1986) describes the process of developing a competency-based curriculum for a refugee program designed to develop language skills for employment. The process included:

- Reviewing existing curricula, resource materials, and textbooks
- Needs analysis (interviews, observations, survey of employers)
- Identifying topics for a survival curriculum
- Identifying competencies for each of the topics
- Grouping competencies into instructional units

Examples of competencies as given by Mrowicki (1986) are:

Topic: housing

1. Identify common household furniture/rooms.
2. Answer simple questions about basic housing needs.
3. Ask for simple information about housing, including rent, utilities, and date available.
4. Report household problems and emergencies.
5. Request repairs.
6. Arrange time for repairs.

Topic: shopping

1. Read a limited number of basic signs.
2. Ask the price of items.
3. State basic food (or other) needs.
4. State intention to purchase items.
5. Request correct change when incorrect change is received.
6. Read abbreviations for common weights and measure.
7. Ask for food using common weights and measures.
8. State clothing needs, including color and size.
9. Differentiate sizes by reading tags and tape measure.

Topic-069: Criticism on the Use of Competencies

The use of competencies in program planning is not without its critics. These criticisms have been discussed below:

Tollefson (1986) argues that no valid procedures are available to develop competency specifications. Although lists of competencies can be generated intuitively for many areas and activities, there is no way of knowing which ones are essential. Typically, competencies are based on intuition and experience, a process similar to the one used to develop statements of objectives. In addition, focusing on observable behaviors can lead to a trivialization of the nature of an activity. Therefore, competencies related to effective performance on a job will tend to include such things as reading directions or following orders on a job, but not to change or question the nature of the job.

Hidden values underlying competency specifications CBLT is based on a social and economic efficiency model of curriculum design that seeks to enable learners to participate effectively in society. Consequently, as Tollefson and others have pointed out, the competencies selected as a basis for instruction typically represent value judgments about what such participation involves.

These criticisms essentially argue for a different curriculum ideology than CBLT such as a learner-centered or social-reconstructionist model. CBLT is not necessarily linked to the ideology exposed by Tollefson. As with the use of objectives, appropriately described and chosen competency descriptions can provide a useful framework for course planning and delivery, though they may be more appropriate for certain types of courses than others. They seem particularly suitable to programs that seek to teach learners the skills needed to perform specific tasks and operations, as found in many kinds of ESP programs.

Topic-070: The Standard Movement

Standards are descriptions of the targets students should be able to reach in different domains of curriculum content. Throughout the 1990s there was a drive to specify standards for subject matter across the curriculum. These standards or benchmarks are stated in the form of competencies.

The TESOL organization undertook to develop school standards for ESL for grades K-12. These are described in terms of competencies: "The standards specify the language competencies TESOL students need in elementary and secondary schools in order to become fully proficient in English, to have unrestricted access to grade-appropriate instruction in challenging academic subjects, and ultimately to lead rich and productive lives" (TESOL 1997). The standards are framed around three goals and nine standards.

Topic-071: Non-language Outcomes and Process Objectives

A language curriculum typically includes other kinds of outcomes apart from language-related objectives of the kind described above. If the curriculum seeks to reflect values related to learner centeredness, social re-constructionism, or cultural pluralism, outcomes related to these values will also need to be included. Because such outcomes go beyond the content of a linguistically oriented syllabus, they are sometimes referred to as **non-language outcomes**. Those that describe learning experiences rather than learning outcomes are also known as **process objectives**. Jackson reports that a group of teachers of adult

immigrants in Australia identified eight broad categories (given below) of non-language outcomes in their teaching (Jackson 1993):

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- Social, psychological, and emotional support in the new living environment
- Confidence
- Motivation
- Cultural understanding
- Knowledge of the Australian community context
- Learning about learning
- Clarification of goals
- Access and entry into employment, further study, and community life

Objectives in these domains relate to the personal, social, cultural, and political needs and rights of learners. If these are not identified, they tend to get forgotten or overlooked in the curriculum planning process.

Non-language outcomes represent more than desirable or optional by-products of the language learning process. They are essential prerequisites for on-going and meaningful involvement with the process of language learning and learning in general. Non-language outcomes are thus teaching and learning issues strongly related to issues of access and equity for non-English-speaking background learners and workers. It is important that the development of knowledge and learning skills represent a significant component of the adult ESL curriculum.

Lesson-13

COURSE PLANNING AND SYLLABUS DESIGN

Topic-072: Course Planning and Syllabus Design: The Course Rationale

A starting point in course development is a description of the course rationale. This is a brief written description of the reasons for the course and the nature of it. The course rationale seeks to answer the following questions:

- Who is this course for?
- What is the course about?
- What kind of teaching and learning will take place in the course?

The course rationale answers these questions by describing the beliefs, values and goals that underlie the course. It would normally be a two- or three-paragraph statement that has been developed by those involved in planning and teaching a course and that serves to provide the justification for the type of teaching and learning that will take place in the course. It provides a succinct statement of the course philosophy for anyone who may need such information including students, teachers, and potential clients. Developing a rationale also helps provide focus and direction to some of the deliberations involved in course planning. The rationale thus serves the purposes of:

- Guiding the planning of the various components of the course.
- Emphasizing the kinds of teaching and learning the course should exemplify.
- Providing a check on the consistency of the various course components in terms of the course values and goals.

The following is an example of a course rationale:

This course is designed for working adults who wish to improve their communication skills in English in order to improve their employment prospects. It teaches the basic communication skills needed to communicate in a variety of different work settings. The course seeks to enable participants to 'recognize their strengths and needs in language learning and to give them the confidence to use English more effectively to achieve their own goals. It also seeks to develop the participants' skills in independent learning outside the classroom.

In order to develop a course rationale, the course planners need to give careful consideration to the goals of the course, the kind of teaching and learning they want the course to exemplify, the roles of teachers and learners in the course, and the beliefs and principles the course will reflect.

Topic-073: Describing the Entry and Exit Level

In order to plan a language course, it is necessary to know when the program will start and the level

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learners may be expected to reach at the end of the course. Language programs and commercial materials typically distinguish between elementary, intermediate, and advanced levels, but these categories are too

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broad for the kind of detailed planning that program and materials development involves. For these purposes, more detailed descriptions are needed for students' proficiency levels before they enter a program and targeted proficiency levels at the end of it. Information may be available on students' entry level from their results on international proficiency tests such as TOEFL or IELTS; or specially designed tests may be needed to determine the level of students' language skills. Information from proficiency tests will enable the target level of the program to be assessed and may require adjustment of the program's objectives if they appear to be aimed at too high or too low a level.

An approach that has been widely used in language program planning is to identify different levels of performance or proficiency in the form of band levels or points on a proficiency scale. These describe what a student is able to do at different stages in a language program.

Topic-074: Choosing Course Content

The question of course content is probably the most basic issue in course design. Given that a course has to be developed to address a specific set of needs and to cover a given set of objectives, what will the content of the course look like? Decisions about course content reflect the planners' assumptions about the nature of language, language use, and language learning, what the most essential elements or units of language are, and how these can be organized as an efficient basis for second language learning. For example, a writing course could potentially be planned around any of the following types of content:

- Grammar (e.g. using the present tense in descriptions)
- Functions (e.g. describing likes and dislikes)
- Topics (e.g. writing about world issues)
- Skills (e.g. developing topic sentences)
- Processes (e.g. using prewriting strategies)
- Texts (e.g. writing a business letter)

Similarly, a speaking course could be organized around:

- Functions (expressing opinions)
- Interaction skills (opening and closing conversations, turn taking)
- Topics (current affairs, business topics)

The choice of a particular approach to content selection will depend on subject-matter knowledge, the learners' proficiency levels, their current views on second language learning and teaching, conventional wisdom, and convenience. Information gathered during needs analysis contributes to the planning of course content, as do additional ideas from the following sources:

- Available literature on the topic
- Published materials on the topic
- Review of similar courses offered elsewhere

- Review of tests or exams in the area

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- Consultation with teachers familiar with the topic
- Consultation with specialists in the area

Topic-075: Determining the Scope and Sequence

Decisions about course content also need to address the distribution of content throughout the course. This is known as planning the scope and sequence of the course. Scope is concerned with the breadth and depth of coverage of items in the course, that is, with the following questions:

- What range of content will be covered?
- To what extent should each topic be studied?

For example, in relation to the course on listening and speaking skills, one area of potential content identified was "describing experiences." About how much will be included in relation to this topic? And should two, four, or six class periods be devoted to it? The sequencing of content in the course also needs to be determined. This involves deciding which content is needed early in the course and which provides a basis for things that will be learned later.

Topic-076: Planning the Course Structure

The next stage in course development involves mapping the course structure into a form and sequence that provide a suitable basis for teaching. Some of the preliminary planning involved will have occurred while ideas for course content were being generated. Two aspects of this process; however, require more detailed planning i.e. selecting a syllabus framework and developing instructional blocks. These issues are closely related and sometimes inseparable but also involve different kinds of decisions.

In choosing a particular syllabus framework for a course, planners are influenced by the following factors:

- **Knowledge and beliefs about the subject area:** a syllabus reflects ideas and beliefs about the nature of speaking, reading, writing, or listening.
- **Research and theory:** research on language use and learning as well as applied linguistics theory sometimes leads to proposals in favour of particular syllabus types.
- **Common practice:** the language teaching profession has built up considerable practical experience in developing language programs and this often serves as the basis for different syllabus types.
- **Trends:** approaches to syllabus design come and go and reflect national or international trends.

Topic-077: Planning the Course Structure: Lexical and Situational Syllabus

It identifies a target vocabulary to be taught, normally arranged according to levels such as the first 500, 1,000, 1,500, 2,000 words. Vocabulary syllabuses were among the first types of syllabuses to be developed in language teaching. Today, there is a large degree of consensus in English-language teaching concerning targets for vocabulary teaching at different levels and textbook and materials;

writers tend to keep materials within target vocabulary bands.

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Elementary level: 1,000 words Intermediate level, an additional 2,000 words Upper Intermediate level, an additional 2,000 words Advanced level. An example of a course planned systematically around comments:

-The 700 most frequent words of English account for around 70% of all English text. That is to say around 70% of the English we speak and hear, read and write is made up of the 700 most common words in the language.

Even this, we decided that word frequency would determine the contents of our course. Level 1 would aim to cover the most frequent 700 words together with their common patterns and uses. Level 2 would recycle these words and go on to cover the next 800 to bring us up to the 1,500 level, and Level 3 because vocabulary is involved in the presentation of any type of language content, a lexical syllabus can only be considered as one strand of a more comprehensive syllabus.

Situational syllabus: It is organized around the language needed for different situations such as at the airport or at a hotel. A situation is a setting in which particular communicative acts typically occur. A situational syllabus identifies the situations in which the learner will use the language and the typical communicative acts and language used in that setting. Situational syllabuses have been a familiar feature of language teaching textbooks for centuries (Kelly, 1969) and are often used in travel books and books that focus on mastering expressions frequently encountered in particular situations. An example of a recent situationally organized textbook on English for travel is passport which contains the following situational syllabus:

- | | |
|----------------------|------------------------|
| 1. On an airplane | 10. In a restaurant |
| 2. At an immigration | 11. In a cafe |
| 3. At a bank | 12. In a bar |
| 4. On the telephone | 13. On a bus |
| 5. On the street | 14. In a store |
| 6. In the city | 15. At the post office |
| 7. At home | 16. At the cinema |
| 8. At the doctors' | 17. In a hotel |
| 9. In an office | 18. At the airport |

Situational syllabus has the advantage of presenting text and teaching language of immediate practical use. However, they are also subject to the following criticisms:

- Little is known about the language used in different situations, so selection of teaching items is typically based on intuition.
- Language used in specific situations may not transfer to other situations.
- Situational syllabuses often lead to a phrase-book approach.
- Grammar is dealt with incidentally, so a situational syllabus may result in gaps in a student's grammatical knowledge.

The role of situations in syllabus design has recently re-entered language teaching, albeit in a different form from traditional situational syllabuses, with the emergence of communicative approaches to syllabus design and ESP. ESP approaches to curriculum development attribute a central role to the situation or setting in which communication takes place and to the following elements of the situation (Munby, 1978; Feez, 1998):

- The participants
- Their role relations
- The transactions they engage in
- The skills or behaviours involved in each transaction
- The kinds of oral and written texts that are produced
- The linguistic features of the texts

Topic-078: Planning the Course Structure: Topical and Competency Based Syllabus

Topical or content-based syllabus: It is organized around themes, topics, or other units of content. With a topical syllabus, content rather than/ grammar, functions, or situations is the starting point in syllabus design. Content may provide the sole criterion for organizing the syllabus or a framework for linking a variety of different syllabus strands together. "It is the teaching of content or information in the language being learned with little or no direct effort to teach the language separately from the content being taught" (Krahnke, 1987). All language courses, no matter what kind of syllabus they are based on, must include some form of content. But with more approaches to syllabus design, content is incidental and serves merely as the vehicle for practicing language structures, functions, or skills. In a typical lesson in a grammar-based course, for example, a structure is selected and then content is chosen to show how the item is used and to provide a context for practicing the structure. In a topic-based syllabus, in contrast, content provides the vehicle for the presentation of language rather than the other way around. Maximum use is made of content to provide links and continuity across the skill areas. Claims made for the advantages of courses based on content-based syllabuses are:

- They facilitate comprehension.
- Content makes linguistic form more meaningful.
- Content serves as the best basis for teaching the skill areas.
- They address students' needs.
- They motivate learners.
- They allow for integration of the four skills.
- They allow for use of authentic materials.

Competency-based syllabus It is based on a specification of the competencies learners are expected to master in relation to specific situations and activities. Competencies are a description of the essential skills, knowledge, and attitudes required for effective performance of particular tasks and activities. For example, the work-skills curriculum in Mrowicki (1986) is organized according to topics and competencies.

The curriculum's language competencies are divided into topic and cross-topic areas. A topic refers to the context in which language is used. For example, the competency "Report basic household problems" is found in the topic "Housing." A cross-topic is a topic which can occur in other topic areas. For example, the competency "Read and write dates" from the cross-topic "Time and Dates" also occurs in the topics "Shopping" (reading expiration dates of food), "Health" (reading appointment times), "Banking and Bills" (reading the date due on bills), etc. (Mrowicki, 1986).

Examples of competencies related to the topic of "telephoning" are:

- Read and dial telephone numbers.
- Identify oneself on the telephone when answering and calling.
- Request to speak to someone.
- Respond to request to hold
- Respond to offer to "take message."

Competency-based syllabuses are widely used in social survival and work-oriented language programs.

Topic 79: Planning the Course Structure: Text-Based and Integrated Syllabus

Text-based syllabus: It is built around texts and samples of extended discourse. As already noted, this can be regarded as a type of situational approach because the starting point in planning a syllabus is analysis of the contexts in which the learners will use the language.

This approach starts with the texts which are identified for a specific context or which have been identified by students. This approach is often used when an overall context for language learning has been defined, such as in a specific workplace or a university or other further study context. Units of work are then developed in relation to the texts. For example, the spoken texts identified for a group of engineers in a workplace were: spoken instructions to field staff, presentations of report findings at meetings and telephone negotiations with contractors (Burns and Joyce 1997).

A text-based syllabus is a type of integrated syllabus because it combines elements of different types of syllabuses. The following are examples of text types that can be used in planning a text-based syllabus (Feez 1998):

<i>Exchanges</i>	simple exchanges relating to information and goods and services complex or problematic exchanges casual conversation
<i>Forms</i>	simple formatted texts complex formatted texts
<i>procedures</i>	Instructions -procedures protocols
<i>information texts</i>	descriptions explanations Reports

	directives
	texts that combine more than one text types
<i>story texts</i>	Recounts narratives
<i>persuasive texts</i>	opinion texts expositions

An integrated syllabus: Decisions about a suitable syllabus framework for a course reflect different priorities in teaching rather than absolute choices. The issue is, which foci will be central in planning the syllabus and which will be secondary? In most courses there will generally be a number of different syllabus strands, such as grammar linked to skills and texts, tasks linked to topics and functions, or skills linked to topics and texts. In arriving at a decision about which approach to syllabus planning to take, the course planners need to decide between macro-level and micro-level planning units in the course. For example, a reading course might first be planned in terms of reading skills (the macro-level planning category) and then further planned in terms of text types, vocabulary, and grammar (the micro-level planning category). A syllabus might be organized grammatically at the first level and then the grammar presented functionally or the first level of organization might be functional with grammar items selected according to the grammatical demands of different functions. In practical terms, therefore, all syllabuses reflect some degree of integration.

Topic-080: Developing Instructional Blocks

A course also needs to be mapped out in terms of instructional blocks or sections. An instructional block is a self-contained learning sequence that has its own goals and objectives and that also reflects the overall objectives for the course. Instructional blocks represent the instructional focus of the course and may be very specific (e.g., a single lesson) or more general (e.g., a unit of work consisting of several lessons). Planning the organizational structure in a course involves selecting appropriate blocks and deciding on the sequence in which these will appear. In organizing a course into teaching blocks, one seeks to achieve the following:

- To make the course more teachable and learnable.
- To provide a progression in level of difficulty.
- To create overall coherence and structure for the course.

Two commonly used instructional blocks are planning by modules and by units.

Topic-081: Preparing the Scope and Sequence Plan

Once a course has been planned and organized, it can be described. One form in which it can be described is as a scope and sequence plan. This might consist of a listing of the module or units and their contents and an indication of how much teaching time each block in the course will require. In the case of a textbook, it usually consists of a unit-by-unit description of the course cross-referenced to the syllabus items included.

Lesson-14

GOALS, CONTENT AND SEQUENCING

Topic-082: Goals, Content and Sequencing: Introduction

When we talk about goals, content and its sequencing, we naturally look at them in the environment they take place. While deciding the goals, we need to take into account various needs of the students. As teachers, we need to consider the principles of language teaching. Making sensible, well justified decisions about content is one of the most important parts of curriculum design.

Topic-083: The Units of Progression in the Course and Their Significance

The units of progression in a course are the items that are used to grade the progress of the course. For example, if the starting point of a course was language items, and, in particular, vocabulary, the units of progression would be words, and at a broader level, word frequency levels which are similar to those used in grading the levels of simplified readers. Similarly the academic word list is presented in ten sub- lists ranging from the most frequent to the least frequent (Coxhead, 2000). If the starting point of a course was topics, then the units of progression would also be topics with progress through the course being marked by an increasing number of topics covered. Long and Crookes (1993) call units of progression as —units of analysis and argue that the choice of the unit of analysis should be one of the starting points of curriculum design. Harden and Witte (2006) explore the different kinds of progression from a historical perspective, noting that —the notion of progression has undergone remarkable changes throughout the history of foreign language teaching methodologies.

The units of progression can be classified into two types – those that progress in a definite series, such as vocabulary levels, and those that represent a field of knowledge that could be covered in any order, such as topics. The order of items within a field is determined by pedagogical considerations and constraints such as keeping the learners' interest, making use of available resources, and allowing for recycling of material.

Topic -084: The Units of Progression in the Course and Their Significance: Grammar Functions

There are several frequency counts of verb form usage in English which can act as the basis for the selection and sequencing of items in a course (George, 1963). George suggests that a reasonable basis for

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Stage 1 of a course (1,500 to 2,000 words over roughly two years of five periods of English per week) would consist of the following verbs:

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- Don't + stem (Imperative)
- Simple Present Actual and Neutral
- Verb + to + stem
- Simple Past Narrative and Actual

- **Past Participle**

This group of items accounts for 575 of every 1,000 successive verb forms in written English. Stage 2 of a course could add the following items:

- **Simple Past Neutral and Habitual**
- **Past Perfect from Simple Past Narrative**
- Stem+ing in Free Adjuncts
- Noun + to + Stem
- **Simple Present Iterative and Future**
- Verb + to + Stem (Stem dominant)
- Verb + Noun + to + Stem
- Noun + Preposition + Stem+ ing
- Stem+ed = Adjective in a Noun Group
- Stem+ing = Adjective in a Noun Group
- Stem+ing = Noun
- Can + Stem (immediately and characteristically able)
- May + Stem (possibility and uncertainty)

There is no standard list of language functions that is accompanied by frequency data. The most widely available list of functions can be found in Van Ek and Alexander (1980) and is organized under the six headings of:

- **Imparting and seeking factual information**
- **Expressing and finding out intellectual attitudes**
- **Expressing and finding out emotional attitudes**
- **Expressing and finding out moral attitudes**
- **Getting things done (suasion)**
- **Socializing**

Topic-085: The Units of Progression in the Course and Their Significance: Discourse, Skills, Sub-Skills and Strategies

Discourse as the basis for units of progression is more likely to be used in pre university courses where learners systematically cover a range of relevant genres such as recounts, information reports and

arguments. Attention to elements of spoken discourse, such as ellipsis between speakers and negotiation of discourse, may occur early in language courses but is rarely the unit of progression for a course.

Some courses use skills and subskills as their units of progression. Reading courses for example may focus on skills such as finding the main idea, reading for detail, notetaking, skimming, reading faster, and reading for inferences.

There are three major ways of defining subskills. One is to look at the range of activities covered by a skill such as speaking and to use these as a starting point for defining subskills. For example, speaking can be divided into interactional speaking and transactional speaking (Brown, 1978). Transactional speaking can be divided into monologue, dialogue, etc.

Another way is to look at the skill as a process and to divide it into the parts of the process. This is a typical way of approaching writing, dividing the writing process into parts. One possible division of the process is: (1) having a model of the reader, (2) having writing goals, (3) gathering ideas, (4) organizing ideas, (5) turning ideas into written text, (6) reviewing what has just been written, and (7) editing the written text. Process divisions can be applied in other skills.

A third way of dividing up a skill is to use levels of cognitive activity. The most well-known approach of this kind can be found in what is popularly known as Bloom's taxonomy. Bloom divides cognitive activity into six levels of increasing complexity: (1) knowledge, (2) comprehension, (3) application, (4) analysis, (5) synthesis, (6) evaluation. These levels have often been applied to the construction of reading comprehension activities.

Topic-086: The Units of Progression in the Course and Their Significance: Ideas

A good language course not only develops the learners' control of the language but also puts the learners in contact with ideas that help the learning of language and are useful to the learners. The ideas content of a course can take many forms. The following list is adapted from Cook (1983). The ideas about the content of a course can be as under:

- Imaginary happenings: The course could follow the typical activities or adventures of a group of learners or native speakers.
- An academic subject: Examples would be linguistics or the special purpose of the learners such as agriculture, tourism, commerce or computing.
- Learner survival needs: These can arise from suggestions by the learners or investigation by the making friends. Ek and Alexander (1980) provide a detailed list of topics under 14 main headings covering daily use of language.
- Interesting facts: These might include topics like the discovery of penicillin, whales and solar power.
- Culture: Adaskou, Britten and Fahsi (1990) divide culture into aesthetic which includes the study of literature, sociological which looks at norms of behaviour and cultural values, semantic which looks

at word meaning and the classification and organisation of experience, and sociolinguistic which involves the appropriate use of language.

However, all four aspects of culture could contradict and threaten the local culture. Witte (2006) see for a description of seven stages of –cultural progression (sociological) moving from explicit knowledge of inter-related aspects of the native and non-native cultures (such as housing, eating, school) to markedly different conceptualizations between the cultures (such as notions of cleanliness and politeness) to understanding the culture from an insider's view and gaining a distanced view of one's own culture.

Topic-087: Task-Based Syllabus

With the shift to communicative language teaching in the 1970s there was an increasing emphasis on using language to convey a message, and as a result increasing attention was given to the use of tasks in the classroom. The realization that many so-called communicative language courses were still largely based upon a sequence of language forms in turn generated interest in task-based, rather than task-supported syllabuses. Published experimentation with task-based syllabuses largely began with the work of Prabhu (1987), and the interest in this type of syllabus may be a result of the links that teachers and curriculum designers see between this approach and their own teaching and planning activity. All the same, the use of task-based syllabuses remains the exception rather than the rule, although tasks themselves are widely used. One of the questions that arise is: what is a task? Many different definitions have been proposed. Ellis provides nine different definitions, one of which is especially succinct and meaning, to attain an objective. Here is a sample task from Prabhu (1987) which demonstrates how the learner needs to focus on and understand the meaning of the language in order to complete the task successfully.

Topic-088: Sequencing the Content in a Course: A Linear Approach

The lessons or units of a course can fit together in a variety of ways. The two major divisions are whether the material in one lesson depends on the learning that has occurred in previous lessons (a linear development) or whether each lesson is separate from the others so that the lessons can be done in any order and need not all be done a modular arrangement.

Topic-089: Sequencing the Content in a Course: A Modular Approach

We have been looking at linear approaches to sequencing and ways of ensuring repetition within a linear approach. The second major type of approach, a modular approach, breaks a course into independent non-linear units. These units may be parts of lessons, lessons or groups of lessons. Each unit or module is complete in itself and does not usually assume knowledge of previous modules. It is not unusual for a modular approach to be accompanied by criterion-referenced testing with a high level of mastery set as the criterion.

In language courses, the language could be divided into modules in several ways. The modules

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could be skill-based with different modules for listening, speaking, reading and writing, and sub-skills of these larger skills. The modules could be based on language functions, or more broadly situations, dealing with the language needed for shopping, emergency services, travel, the post office and the bank. Modular

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courses often have some kind of division into obligatory or core modules, and optional or elective modules, or a division into level 1 modules and level 2 modules and so on.

Ellis (2003) proposes a modular approach for task-based language courses. In his proposal there are two unconnected modules. At beginner levels the sole focus is on a communicative, meaning-focused module. From intermediate level onwards, attention is also given to a language- (or code-) focused module, with the intention of —drawing attention to form in order to destabilize learners' interlanguage (Ellis, 2003) and thus avoiding fossilization of language errors. This approach suggests a way to deal with the concerns mentioned above about a lack of attention to accuracy in some task-based language courses.

Lesson-15

FORMAT AND PRESENTATION

Topic-090: Format and Other Parts of the Curriculum Design Process

The aim of this part of course is to choose the teaching and learning techniques and design the lesson plans. It is at the format and presentation part of the curriculum design process that the data gathered from needs, environment analysis and the principles chosen to maximize learning come together in activities that involve the learners. Most of the decisions made regarding constraints, needs, principles, content and sequencing will only be indirectly observable through the format and presentation of the lessons. But these decisions must come through into the lesson format, or the work done on these aspects of curriculum design has been wasted, and the course might not suit the environment or learners for which it is intended, and might not apply what is known about teaching and learning.

Topic-091: Guidelines for Deciding on a Format

Format and presentation must take account of the environment in which the course will be used, the needs of the learners, and principles of teaching and learning. A problem facing the curriculum designer is how to communicate the reasons why each lesson is like it is. If both teachers and learners are aware of the goals of each activity, why they are useful goals, how the activity should be best presented to achieve the goal, and what kind of learning involvement is needed, and the signs of successful involvement then learning is more likely to be successful. There is plenty of evidence to show that teachers and learners do not share the same view of parts of a lesson, and that the learners sometimes do activities in ways that defeat the purpose of the activity. Information about the lesson can occur in several different places in a course. Probably, the most useful place is in the headings and instructions for each activity in a lesson.

If the lessons always follow the same format then the introduction to the course book can include some explanation of the goals and how they are best reached. In some course books, for example, *The Cambridge English Course* (Swan and Walter, 1985), a detailed table of contents (—a map of the book) indicates the various new points of focus. Many courses have a special teacher's book, which then gives the teacher the responsibility for informing the learners of the goals and how to learn.

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Meaning-focused input involves having the opportunity to learn from listening and speaking. Krashen (1981) would call it learning from comprehensible input. The conditions which are needed for such learning are a low density of unknown items in the language input, a focus on the meaning of the message, and a large quantity of input. In language courses, the most important way of providing a large amount of comprehensible input is to have an extensive reading program. This involves the learners in reading books which have been specially written for learners of English in a controlled vocabulary. There are many series of such books. They are excellent resources for meaning-focused input.

For learners at elementary and intermediate levels, an extensive reading program is an essential part of any general English course. A listening equivalent of such a course is also needed. Many graded reading books are now accompanied by a CD. Learners can listen while they read, or read first and listen later. Where the listening is not accompanied by visual clues, it is more difficult to learn from listening than from reading.

Repeated listening is thus a very useful activity, and Elley (1989) found that he had to provide three listening opportunities for the same story to be able to measure reasonable learning from listening input. Another major source of meaning-focused input in a course comes from interacting with others.

One person's output can be another person's input. An advantage of interactive listening is that the listener can negotiate the meaning of the input with the speaker. That is, they can ask the meaning of words or constructions and they can ask for a repetition of poorly heard material. They can also control the speed of the input by asking the speaker to speak more slowly. A course can usefully include material which trains the learners in such negotiation. This training can include learning the phrases which are needed to seek information about input, and which can control the speed and repetition of the input. Meaning-focused output involves learning through speaking and writing.

Learning by input alone is not sufficient because the knowledge needed to comprehend input does not include all the knowledge which is needed to produce output. A well-balanced language course spends about one quarter of the course time on meaning-focused speaking and writing.

Meaning-focused speaking should involve the learners in conversation and also in monologue. The conversation can have a largely social focus and can also be used for conveying important information. That is, there should be practice in both interactional and transactional language use. The conditions for meaning-focused output are similar to those for meaning-focused input. There should be a focus on the message (that is getting the listener or the reader to understand), the task should be demanding but not too demanding, and there should be plenty of opportunity for such activity.

Topic-093: The Four Strands: Language Focused Learning and Fluency Development

Language-focused learning involves a deliberate focus on language features such as pronunciation, spelling, word parts, vocabulary, collocations, grammatical constructions and discourse features. Language-focused learning is an efficient way of quickly learning language features. It is an important part of any language course and about one quarter of the course time should be spent on such learning. In most courses too much time is spent on such learning, and this means that there is less opportunity for learning through

the other three strands of the course. The answer is not to completely

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remove language-focused learning from the course, but to make sure that there is an appropriate amount of it.

Language-focused learning can have two major effects. It can result in deliberate conscious knowledge of language items. This explicit knowledge can be helpful in making learners aware of language features which they will meet in input. This awareness can help learning from input. Language focused learning can also result in subconscious implicit knowledge of language items. This is the kind of knowledge which is needed for normal language use. Deliberate learning of vocabulary items can result in both kinds of knowledge (Elgort, 2007). For most grammatical features however deliberate learning is likely only to contribute to conscious knowledge. Such conscious knowledge can be useful when learners have time to check their production as in writing, but it is also useful as a stepping stone to implicit knowledge when the items are later met in meaning-focused input or fluency development activities.

Here are some of the activities which could occur in the language focused learning strand of course – intensive reading, pronunciation practice, guided writing, spelling practice, blank-filling activities, sentence completion or sentence combining activities, getting feedback on written work, correction during speaking activities, learning vocabulary from word cards, memorizing collocations, dictation and the explicit study of discourse features.

The fourth strand of a course is a fluency development strand. Fluency involves making the best use of what is already known. Thus, the fluency development strand of a course does not involve the learning of new language features, but involves becoming fluent with features that the learners have already met before. The conditions for the fluency development strand are: (1) easy, familiar material, (2) a focus on communicating messages, (3) some pressure to perform at a faster speed, and (4) plenty of opportunities for fluency practice.

There needs to be fluency practice in each of the four skills of listening, speaking, reading and writing. Listening fluency practice can involve listening to stories, taking part in interactive activities, and listening to lectures on familiar material. Speaking fluency activities can involve repeated speaking where learners deliver the same talk several times to different listeners, speaking on very familiar topics, reading familiar material aloud, and speaking about what has already been spoken or written about before. Reading fluency activities should involve a speed reading course within a controlled vocabulary.

Such courses can bring about substantial fluency improvement with just a few minutes practice two or three times a week for most learners. Such courses need to be within a controlled vocabulary because they should not contain vocabulary which is unfamiliar to the learners. It is very difficult to develop fluency when working with material which contains unknown language features. Other reading fluency activities include repeated reading where the learners read the same text several times, and extensive reading involving very easy graded readers. Writing fluency activities involve the learners in writing about things where they bring a lot of previous knowledge. A very useful activity in this strand is ten-minute writing. In this activity, two or three times a week, the teacher gets the learners to write under timed conditions that are for exactly ten minutes. The teacher does not mark any of the errors in the writing but comments on the content of the writing perhaps suggesting what the learners should write more about next time. The learners record the number of words per minute they have written on a graph.

Their goal is to increase the number of words per minute written. Other writing fluency activities include linked skills activities.

Linked skills activities are very effective for fluency development in all of the skills of listening, speaking, reading and writing. A linked skills activity involves learners working on the same material while moving through a series of changes, for example, from listening to the material, to talking about it, and then to writing about it.

Topic-094: Activities and Conditions for Four Strands: Busy Work and Comprehension Questions

Most language-learning programs only make use of a small number of different kinds of teaching techniques or activities. There is nothing wrong with this, because if there is too great a variety of teaching activities, the teacher may have to spend a lot of time explaining to the learners how the activity is done before they actually get on to doing the activity. When deciding whether a course is likely to be effective or not, it is useful to look very closely at a few of the major activities used in the course to see how they help learning and how much of the work involved in them is just busy work which is not making an effective contribution to useful learning. Let us look at some examples of this analysis, focusing on some very commonly used activities.

A very common activity in courses which focus on reading involves the learners answering comprehension questions of various kinds. These kinds can include pronominal questions, true/false questions, and multiple-choice questions. This kind of activity fits into the meaning-focused input strand, because the focus of the activity is on understanding messages. If the learners have to write original answers to pronominal questions, this part of the activity would fit into the meaning-focused output strand. How can such questions help vocabulary learning? Clearly, vocabulary learning is not the main goal of comprehension questions, but questions can be designed so that they also help vocabulary learning as well as provide feedback about comprehension. Questions help vocabulary learning if the answer to the question involves the use of target vocabulary, if the question itself includes the target vocabulary, and if the answer to the question involves the target vocabulary being used in generative ways. That is, the way the word is used in the question or the answer is not an exact copy of the way in which it is used in the text.

Topic-095: Following a Set Format

When designing the format of a lesson, the curriculum designer needs to consider environment factors such as the length of time available for each lesson, the teachers' skill and role in the lesson, and the size of a typical class.

Deciding on the format of a lesson involves combining practical and principled considerations. Too often principles are ignored because of practical pressures. What occurs in a lesson and the order in which it should occur? The principles at work in this lesson format seem to be:

- There should be learning from comprehensible input as a basis for later activities.
- Language-focused learning will contribute to the production of output.

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- Learners should have to produce language with a focus on the message.
- Repetition is an important aid to learning and material should be recycled in a lesson.

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and a degree of unpredictability regarding the types of exercises.

Each lesson in this particular course has a set format with the three main sections but there is variety within some sections. The length and number of sections in a lesson may depend upon time constraints such as the usual length of a school lesson in the school or country where the lesson is taught.

Topic-096: Blocks and Threads

In a very interesting book entitled *Planning from Lesson to Lesson* (1995), Woodward and Lindstromberg describe two ways of planning a lesson. One way is called a –block lesson where the lesson has a set format and is a separate block largely complete within itself. Typical block formats include the type of lesson with listening and reading input, language-focused activity, and meaning-focused output. Another block format involves an experience-providing stage, a guided practice stage, and then a fluency-development stage. —Blocks of these kinds provide support for the lesson planner in that once the type of block is chosen as being suitable for the goals that the teacher wants to achieve, the lesson itself requires very little planning because its parts are predictable and the later parts build on the previous parts of the lesson.

The other way of planning a lesson is by making use of –threads. Threads are activities that run through a series of lessons. Threads are activities that can be used again and again with minimal planning and only small changes. For example, a teacher or curriculum designer might set up an interview thread that appears in a large number of lessons. In each lesson, the class interviews a different learner from the class. The types of questions remain the same and all that changes is that a different learner is interviewed each time. After the initial preparation and allocation of times, little further planning is needed. Alternatively, the learners interview each other in pairs with the members of the pairs changing for each lesson.

Topic-097: Techniques and Activities

A large variety of techniques and activities can be drawn on when designing lessons. These can be divided into four major types, each type having its own cycle of activities, favored learning goals, and principles of learning. Sometimes, of course, an activity can be a combination of two or more types (a guided activity involving pair- or group-work, for instance) and sometimes two or more types are used in sequence (such as an experience activity before an independent activity). Experience activities try to keep as much as possible of the knowledge needed to perform the activity within the learners' previous experience.

This can be done in several ways:

- The teacher, curriculum designer or materials writer carefully controls the language, ideas, skills, etc. so that they will be largely already familiar to the learners. Simplified or graded reading texts are like this.
- The knowledge needed to do the activity is provided through previous lessons or previous

activities within a lesson. Speaking activities near the end of a lesson, or the listening activities at

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the beginning of a lesson may be like this. This results in a lesson format that builds up to a final activity or set of activities that are the main point of the lesson.

- The teacher helps the learners to share and recall previous experience to make the following activity easier. This results in a lesson format that may begin with teacher-led discussion or group work and ends with what otherwise may have been quite a demanding task. Examples include discussion of a topic followed by each learner writing about it, and semantic mapping of a topic followed by speaking about it.

Topic-098: Tasks and Presentation

The arguments that task-based learning advocates like Long and Crookes (1992) presented against other types of syllabus are mostly arguments about the presentation of material rather than the selection of content. As mentioned earlier, tasks can be present in either a task supported or a task-based syllabus. In a task-supported syllabus, the task is likely to be the final stage in a conventional *Present–Practice–Produce* unit of work; the task may be designed to focus on the language structure that has been presented. In a task-based syllabus, however, the task is likely to be the unit. Willis (1996) describes the task-based learning framework as consisting of three phases: pre-task, the task cycle and language focus. Considerable variety and variation are possible within this framework, and the task need not focus on a specific language structure.

Lesson-16

PROVIDING FOR EFFECTIVE TEACHING -I

Topic-099: Providing for Effective Teaching: The Organizational Factors

The organizational culture of a school refers to the ethos and environment that exist within a school (the kinds of communications and decision making that take place, and the management and staffing structure they support). Several aspects of a school's organizational culture were discussed, including the extent to which the school's organizational culture facilitates or hinders the reception of new ideas and practices. A school's organizational culture is revealed in the way the following questions are answered:

- What are the school's goals and mission?
- What is the school's management style?
- What shared values do staff have?
- What are the decision-making characteristics of the school?
- What roles do teachers perform?
- How are teaching and other work planned and monitored?
- What provision is made for staff development?
- How are courses and curriculum planned?
- How receptive is the school to change and innovation?
- How open are communication channels?

Topic-100: The Organizational Factors: Quality Indicators in an Institution

Language teaching institutions vary greatly in terms of how they view their educational mission. Some schools are committed to provide quality educational services. They have a clearly articulated mission. The following characteristics are indicators of the quality of an educational institution (Morris, 1994):

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- There are clearly stated educational goals.
- Systematic and identifiable processes exist for determining educational needs in the school and
- There is a well-planned, balanced, and organized program that meets the needs of its students, placing them in order of priority.

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- There is a high degree of staff involvement in developing goals and making decisions.
- There is a motivated and cohesive teaching force with good team spirit,
- Administrators are concerned with the teachers' professional development and are able to make the best use of their skills and experience.
- The school's programs are regularly reviewed and progress toward their goals is evaluated.

Topic-101: The Organizational Factors: A Sense of Mission and a Strategic Plan

What goals does the institution have? Does it exist to serve an important educational purpose that provides the rationale for the range of courses and services it offers? A useful format for articulating a school's sense of mission is in the form of a mission statement. Such a statement should be developed collectively by those who have a commitment to the success of the institution. Once it is developed, a mission statement can serve as a reference point to assess proposals for new initiatives or programs within an institution and to provide a basis for evaluation of its performance over time.

Topic-102: The Organizational Factors: Quality Assurance Mechanisms, a Sound Curriculum and Flexible Organizational Framework

Quality assurance refers to systems a school has in place to ensure the quality of its practices. For example, how does one ensure that the best staff is employed? Is there a transparent recruitment process or is staff recruitment made through personal networks? What process is in place to select and review textbooks? Are textbooks chosen by teachers on the basis of quality and relevance or because of other factors? What systems are in place to ensure that test and other forms of assessment are sound and fair? Are grades sometimes adjusted up or down by the administration based on unknown criteria? Factors relevant to creating a culture of quality assurance in an institution are as follows:

- A formulated policy on quality assurance has been articulated and is familiar to all staff.
- Reasonable and acceptable standards have been determined for all aspects of quality, such as employment, publicity, materials, facilities, and teachers' dress codes.
- Systems in place to ensure that quality are regularly assessed and corrections are made where necessary.
- A reward system is in place to ensure that those who attain high quality in their work are recognized.

A sound curriculum is reflected in the following features of a school's programs:

- The range of courses offered corresponds to the needs of learners.
- The curriculum is coherent: The courses represent a rational approach to achieve the school's mission.

curriculum development processes.

developed.

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- Teaching materials and tests are of high quality. They have been carefully selected or developed, and are regularly reviewed and revised.

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- The curriculum is subject to ongoing review and renewal. There is ongoing interest in identifying strengths and weaknesses and bringing about improvements in all aspects of the curriculum.

Topic-103: Organizational Factors: Good Internal Communications

One of the important elements of organizational factor is good internal communication and professional treatment of teachers. Good quality teaching can affect the whole structure of an organization. The internal communication needs to be transparent and clear between administrations, teachers, and supporting staff. There are various factors to ensure the transparency of the system:

- Regular meetings
- Transparent admin system
- Shared decision making
- Clear guidance for staff
- Feedback on program aspects
- Regular communication
- Informal gatherings

In ESL domain, teachers need to have special skills and expertise. In order to ensure good internal communication, it is important to give teachers professional treatment like reward and guidance about the teachers' role and responsibilities.

Topic-104: The Organizational Factors: The Teaching Context

The last set of factors that affect the quality of teaching in a program relate to the context of the institution in which teachers work.

Size and staff structure

The size of a school and its administrative structure influence many aspects of a teacher's work. Working in an institute with a staff of five teachers is very different from working in one with a staff of one hundred. In the former case, the teachers are likely to be a closely knit team whose members know each other well. In the latter case, teachers may work more independently and may not feel that their individual contribution is crucial to the success of the program.

Equipment

Schools vary greatly in the amount they have invested in equipment and technology. Some schools make extensive investments in such things as computers, cassette/CD players, video recorders, overhead transparency (OHT) machines, and photocopiers, recognizing that these are essential tools for teachers and can have a positive effect on teaching staff.

Support staff

Adequate support staff can also help teachers. In this context these questions are very important to

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ask: Is there secretarial or administrative staff to help with typing, time-tabling, duplicating, and administration? If not, what percentage of teachers' time is spent on non-instructional chores and at what cost?

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Teacher Work Space

One way of determining how seriously a school regards its teachers and the work they do is the work space it provides for its teachers. Is there a staff room for teachers where they can interact with colleagues, carry out lesson preparation, mark assignments, and prepare teaching materials and handouts?

Teacher resource room

Teachers need access to a good range of current ESL textbooks, resource books, materials, and magazines located in a resource room or similar facility in order to update their professional knowledge and get new ideas to feed into their teaching.

Topic-105: The Teachers: Skills

Language teaching institutions vary greatly in the type of teachers they employ. Some situations merely make a choice between native speakers of English and non-native speakers of English with varying levels of English-language proficiency. Within both groups, there may be further choices possible based on teaching experience and professional qualifications in TESL/TEFL. Views concerning the appropriate qualifications of language teachers have changed in recent years as the field of TESOL has become more demanding. There is a much greater awareness today that an expert language teacher is a highly skilled professional.

Lesson-17

PROVIDING FOR EFFECTIVE TEACHING -II

Topic-106: The Teachers: Qualifications

In describing teachers' skills, it is possible to compare teachers in terms of their training (trained or untrained) and experience (novice or experienced). The training dimension refers to possession of a professional qualification in language teaching; experience dimension refers to classroom experience. Initial teacher training typically sets out to give teachers what can be called basic technical competence. This consists of an introductory understanding of the subject matter of TESOL, mastery of basic classroom teaching processes as well as approaches to teaching the four skills. For example, the UCLES certificate in Language Teaching to Adults (CELTA), a widely taught initial qualification for language teachers, focuses on six areas of basic teaching skills:

- Language awareness
- The learner, the teacher, and the teaching/learning context
- Classroom management and teaching skills
- Resources and materials for teaching
- Professional development

Topic-107: Support for Teachers

If teachers are expected to teach well and to develop their teaching skills and knowledge over time, they need ongoing support. This may take a number of forms:

- Orientation
- Adequate materials
- Course guides
- Further training

- Teaching release
 - Mentors
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- Rewards

Topic-108: The Teaching Process: Teaching Models

Different models of teaching make different assumptions about the nature of language and of language learning, the roles of teachers, learners, instructional materials, and different assumptions about the processes of language learning and teaching. In language teaching programs, teaching models are often based on particular methods or approaches. For example:

- The communicative approach: The focus of teaching is on authentic communication, extensive use of pair and group activities that involve negotiation of meaning and information sharing. Fluency is a priority.
- The cooperative learning model: Students work in cooperative learning situations and are encouraged to work together on common tasks and to coordinate their efforts to complete tasks. Rewards systems are group-oriented rather than individual-oriented.
- The process approach: In writing classes, students take part in activities that develop their understanding of writing as a process. Different stages in the writing process (planning, generating ideas, drafting, reviewing, revising, editing) form the focus of teaching.

Topic-109: The Teaching Process: Teaching Principles

In any group of teachers, there are some principles that are shared as well as some that are held by individual teachers. As teachers plan lessons and teach, they draw on a teaching philosophy as well as their personal principles to help them shape and direct their teaching (Richards, 1998). Opportunities for teachers to clarify their teaching principles can help focus on issues concerning choice of teaching methods, activities and materials, the purposes underlying different teaching strategies and criteria for evaluating the effectiveness of lessons. Leung and Teasdale (1988) comment: "Clearly there can be effective teaching without teachers making explicit theories which underlie their practice. However, we would contend that other things being equal, privileging and developing the intellectual frameworks which inform teaching offers a principled way of conceptualizing teaching as purposeful action."

Topic-110: Maintaining Good Teaching

Quality teaching cannot simply be assumed to happen. It results from an active and ongoing effort on the part of teachers and administrators to ensure that good teaching practices are being maintained. This involves the establishment of shared commitment to quality teaching and the selection of appropriate measures to bring it about. The following strategies address this issue:

- Monitoring
- Collecting information

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- Formal and informal tools
- Observation
- Peer feedback

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- Identification and resolution of problems
- Shared planning
- Course planning
- Materials
- Lesson planning
- Documentation

Topic-111: Self-Study of the Program

Self-study involves a study of a program's practices and values as part of the process of self-evaluation and review. It is part of the process of demonstrating a commitment to quality and to long-term goals and professional development. By undertaking self-study, a language program declares itself interested in the assessment of its quality and the outcome of its teaching mission, and committed to long-term change and professional growth (Carkin, 1997). A self-study should be undertaken every three to five years and it should involve teachers, administrators, and students in a process of examining all aspects of a school's operations. Guidelines for conducting self-study have been published by TESOL, NAFLA and CTESOL.

Topic-112: The Learning Process

Learning is not the mirror image of teaching. The extent to which teaching achieves its goals will also depend on how successfully learners have been considered in the planning and delivery process. The following factors may affect how successfully a course is received by learners:

- Understanding of the course
- Views of learning
- Learning styles
- Motivation
- Support

Lesson-18

CURRICULUM DESIGN AND INSTRUCTIONAL MATERIALS -I

Topic-113: Curriculum Design and Instructional Materials: Introduction

Teaching materials are a key component in most language programs. They provide ideas on how to plan and teach lessons as well as formats that teachers can use. Much of the language teaching that occurs throughout the world today could not take place without the extensive use of commercial materials. These may take different forms: (a) printed materials such as books, workbooks, worksheets, or readers (b) non-print materials such as cassette or audio materials, videos, or computer-based materials (c) materials that comprise print and non-print sources such as self-access materials and materials on the Internet. In addition, materials that are not designed for instructional use such as magazines, newspapers, and TV materials may also play a role in the curriculum.

Topic-114: Role of Instructional Materials

An instructional material, in any form, makes the basic component of language curriculum design. It serves as an input in a language teaching classroom and provides supplementary support for language teachers. It also provides a background for teachers to plan lessons. There are various uses of instructional material in second language teaching. The role of instructional material for learners is that it is a source to provide contact with language. It also plays vital role in ESP courses as it helps in providing language source for special courses.

Cunningsworth (1995) summarizes the role of materials (particularly course books) in language teaching as:

- A resource for presentation materials (spoken and written)
- A source of activities for learner practice and communicative interaction
- A reference source for learners on grammar, vocabulary, pronunciation, and so on
- A source of stimulation and ideas for classroom activities

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- A syllabus (where they reflect learning objectives that have already been determined)
- A support for less experienced teachers who have yet to gain in confidence

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Topic-115: Authentic Versus Created Materials

When plans regarding the role of materials in a language program are made, an initial decision concerns the use of authentic materials versus created materials. Authentic materials refer to the use in teaching of texts, photographs, video selections, and other teaching resources that were not specially prepared for pedagogical purposes. Created materials refer to textbooks and other specially developed instructional resources. Some have argued that authentic materials are preferred over created materials because they contain authentic language and reflect real-world uses of language compared with the contrived content of much created material. Allwright (1981) thus describes a language course for foreign students at a British university in which one of the guiding principles was: "Use no materials published or unpublished, *actually* conceived or designed as materials for language teaching." Such an imperative seems to reflect a very low opinion of the abilities of materials writers to create pedagogically useful language learning resources. Advantages claimed for authentic materials are:

- They have a positive effect on learners' motivation because they are intrinsically more interesting and motivating than created materials. There is a huge supply of interesting sources for language learning in the media and on the web and these relate closely to the interests of many language learners.
- They provide authentic information about the target culture. Materials can be selected to illustrate many aspects of the target culture including culturally based practices and beliefs and both linguistic and non-linguistic behavior.
- They provide exposure to real language rather than the artificial texts found in created materials that have been specially written to illustrate particular grammatical rules or discourse types.
- They relate more closely to learners' needs and hence provide a link between the classroom and students' needs in the real world.
- They support a more creative approach to teaching. In using authentic materials as a source for teaching activities, teachers can develop their full potential as teachers, developing activities and tasks that better match their teaching styles and the learning styles of their students.

However, critics of the use of authentic materials point out that created materials can also be motivating for learners. Published materials are often designed to look like teenage magazines and other kinds of real-world materials and may be *just* interesting and motivating for learners. Authentic materials often contain difficult language and unneeded vocabulary items, which can be an unnecessary distraction for teachers and learners. Since they have not been simplified or written to any lexical or linguistic guidelines, they often contain language that may be beyond the learners' abilities.

Created materials may be superior to authentic materials because they are generally built around a graded syllabus and hence provide a systematic coverage of teaching items.

Using authentic materials is a burden for teachers. In order to develop learning resources around authentic materials, teachers have to be prepared to spend a considerable amount of time locating suitable sources for materials, developing activities and exercises to accompany the materials.

In many language programs, teachers thus use a mixture of created and authentic materials because both have their advantages as well as limitations. Furthermore, the distinction between authentic and created materials is becoming increasingly blurred because many published materials incorporate authentic texts and other real-world sources

Topic-116: Textbooks

Commercial textbooks together with ancillaries such as workbooks, cassettes, and teachers' guides are perhaps the commonest form of teaching materials. In language teaching, textbooks are used in different ways in language programs. For example, a reading textbook might be the basis for a course on reading skills, providing both a set of reading texts and exercises for skills practice. A writing textbook might provide model compositions and topics for students to write about. A grammar textbook might serve as a reference book and provide examples as well as exercises to develop grammatical knowledge. A speaking text might provide passages for students to read and discuss. A listening text together with audiocassettes or CDs might serve as the primary listening input in a listening course.

The use of commercial textbooks in teaching has both advantages and disadvantages, depending on how they are used and the contexts for their use. Among the principal advantages are:

- They provide structure and a syllabus for a program. Without textbooks, a program may have no central core and learners may not receive a syllabus that has been systematically planned and developed.
- They help standardize instruction. The use of a textbook in a program can ensure that the students in different classes receive similar content and therefore can be tested in the same way.
- They maintain quality. If a well-developed textbook is used, students are exposed to materials that have been tried and tested, that are based on sound learning principles, and that are paced appropriately.

cassettes, videos, CD-ROMs, and comprehensive teaching guides, providing a rich and varied resource for teachers and learners.

- They are efficient. They save teachers' time, enabling teachers to devote time to teaching rather than material production.
- They can provide effective language models and input. Textbooks can provide support for teachers whose first language is not English and who may not be able to generate accurate language input on their own.

teacher's manual can serve as a medium of initial teacher training.

- They are visually appealing. Commercial textbooks usually have high standards of design and production and hence are appealing to learners and teachers.

As with all examples of created materials, however, there are also potential negative effects of commercial textbooks. For example:

- They may contain inauthentic language. Textbooks sometimes present inauthentic language because

texts, dialogues, and other aspects of content tend to be specially written to incorporate teaching points and are often not representative of real language use.

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- They may distort content. Textbooks often present an idealized view of the world or fail to represent real issues. In order to make textbooks acceptable in many different contexts, controversial topics are avoided and instead an idealized white middle-class view of the world is portrayed as the norm.
- They may not reflect students' needs. Because textbooks are often written for global markets, they may not reflect the interests and needs of students and hence may require adaptation.
- They can deskill teachers. If teachers use textbooks as the primary source of their teaching, their role can become reduced to that of a technician whose primary function is to present materials prepared by others.

Topic-117: Evaluating Textbooks

With such an array of commercial textbooks and other kinds of instructional materials to choose from, teachers and others, who are responsible for choosing materials, need to be able to make informed judgments about textbooks and teaching materials. Evaluation, however, can only be done by considering something in relation to its purpose. A book may be ideal in one situation because it matches the needs of that situation perfectly. It has just the right amount of material for the program; it is easy to teach; it can be used with little preparation by inexperienced teachers, and it has an equal coverage of grammar and the four skills. The same book in a different situation, however, may turn out to be quite unsuitable. It contains too little material; it is not sufficiently challenging for teacher and students, and has elements in it (such as a grammar syllabus) that are not needed in the program. Before one can evaluate a textbook, therefore, information is needed on the following issues:

The role of the textbook in the program

- Is there a well-developed curriculum that describes the objectives, syllabus and content of the program or will this be determined by the textbook?
- Will the book or textbook series provide the core of the program, or is it one of several different books that will be used?
- Will it be used with small classes or large ones?
- Will learners be expected to buy a workbook as well or should the textbook provide all the practice students need?

The teachers in the program

- How experienced are the teachers in the program and what is their level of training?
- Are they native speakers of English? If not, how well do they speak English?
- Do teachers tend to follow the textbook closely or do they use the book simply as a resource?

Topic-118: Criteria for Textbook Evaluation

Cunningsworth (1995) proposes four criteria for evaluating textbooks, particularly course books:

1. They should correspond to learners' needs. They should match the aims and objectives of the language learning program.

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2. They should reflect the uses (present or future) that learners will make of the language. Textbooks should be chosen that will help equip students to use language effectively for their own purposes.
3. They should take account of students' needs as learners and should facilitate their learning processes, without dogmatically imposing a rigid method.
4. They should have a clear role as a support for learning. Like teachers, they mediate between the target language and the learner.

Cunningsworth (1995) presents a checklist for textbook evaluation and selection organized under the following categories:

- Aims and approaches
- Design and organization
- Language content
- Skills
- Topic
- Methodology
- Teachers' books

Based on the factors in each situation, questions specific to that situation need to be generated around the main issues involved in textbook evaluation and selection:

- Program factors - questions relating to concerns of the program
- Teacher factors - questions relating to teacher concerns
- Learner factors - questions relating to learner concerns
- Content factors - questions relating to the content and organization of the material in the book
- Pedagogical factors - questions relating to the principles underlying the materials and the pedagogical design of the materials, including choice of activities and exercise types

Topic-119: Adapting Textbooks

Commercial textbooks can seldom be used without some form of adaptation to make them more suitable for the particular context in which they will be used. This adaptation may take a variety of forms.

- **Modifying content:** Content may need to be changed because it does not suit the target learners, perhaps because of factors related to the learners' age, gender, social class, occupation, religion or cultural background.

units may have to be dropped, or perhaps sections of units throughout the book omitted. For example, a course may focus primarily on listening and speaking skills and hence writing activities in the book will be omitted.

units in what she considers a more suitable order. Or within a unit, the teacher may decide not to follow the sequence of activities in the unit but to reorder them for a particular reason.

- Addressing omissions: The text may omit items that the teacher feels unimportant. For example a teacher may add vocabulary activities or grammar activities to a unit.
- Modifying tasks: Exercises and activities may need to be changed to give them an additional focus. For example, a listening activity may focus only on listening for information. It is adapted so that students listen a second or third time for a different purpose. Or an activity may be extended to provide opportunities for more personalized practice.
- Extending tasks. Exercises may contain insufficient practice and additional practice tasks may be added.

The ability to be able to adapt commercial textbooks in these ways is an essential skill for teachers to develop. Through the process of adaptation, the teacher personalizes the text, making it a better teaching resource, and individualizes it for a particular group of learners. Normally, this process takes place gradually as the teacher becomes more familiar with the book because the dimensions of the text that need adaptation may not be apparent until the book is tried out in the classroom. When a number of teachers in a program are teaching from the same textbook, it is useful to build in opportunities for teachers to share information about the forms of adaptation they are making.

Topic 120: Course Book, Learners and Teacher

The use of instruction material in a classroom defines the relationship between course book, learners and teachers for designing and developing instructional materials. Text books form essential component of language curriculum design. There are various views about the role of books in LCD. Prabhu (1989) believes that teaching is a process where teachers know what their learners need, so textbook seems ineffective in this regard because it leaves out the learner. Allwright (1981) agrees to Prabhu's view that books do not allow students to engage in the negotiation process.

Lesson-19

CURRICULUM DESIGN AND INSTRUCTIONAL MATERIALS -II

Topic-121: Preparing Materials for a Program: Advantages and Disadvantages

In cases where institutionally developed materials are being considered for a language program, both the advantages and the disadvantages of setting up a materials development project should be carefully considered at the outset.

Advantages

Advantages of building a material-development-component in a program include:

- **Relevance:** Materials can be produced that are directly relevant to students' institutional needs and that reflect local content, issues, and concerns.
- **Develop expertise:** Developing materials can help develop expertise among staff, giving them a greater understanding of the characteristics of effective materials.
- **Reputation:** Institutionally developed materials may enhance the reputation of the institution by demonstrating its commitment to providing materials developed specifically for its students.
- **Flexibility:** Materials produced within the institution can be revised or adapted as needed, giving them greater flexibility than a commercial course book.

Disadvantages

Disadvantages also need to be considered before embarking on materials development.

- Cost: Quality materials take time to produce and adequate staff, time as well as resources need to be allocated to such a project.

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- **Quality:** Teacher-made materials will not normally have the same standard of design and production as commercial materials and hence may not present the same image as commercial materials.
- **Training:** To prepare teachers for material writing projects, adequate training should be provided. Material writing is a specialized skill and potential materials writers need the opportunity to develop the necessary skills. Workshops can be developed for this purpose. The creation of writing teams that contain a balance of relevant expertise can also be useful.

Topic-122: The Nature of Materials Development

It is also important to understand the nature of materials development and the processes that are typically involved if quality materials are to be created. Dudley-Evans and St. John (1998) observe that "only a small proportion of good teachers are also good designers of course materials." Many teachers underestimate how commercial teaching materials are developed and the developmental processes that are normally involved. Preparing effective teaching materials is similar to the processes involved in planning and teaching a lesson. The goal is to create materials that can serve as resources for effective learning. The writer starts with a learning goal in mind and then seeks to create a set of activities that enable that goal to be reached.

In both materials development and classroom teaching, the goal is to develop a sequence of activities that leads teachers and learners through a learning route that is at an appropriate level of difficulty. It provides both motivation and useful practice. Good materials do many of the things that a teacher would normally do as part of his or her teaching. They should:

- Arouse the learners' interest
- Remind them of earlier learning
- Tell them what they will be learning next
- Explain new learning content to them
- Relate these ideas to learners' previous learning
- Get learners to think about new content
- Help them get feedback on their learning
- Encourage them to practice
- Make sure they know what they are supposed to be doing
- Enable them to check their progress
- Help them to do better

Topic-123: Decisions in Materials Design

When deciding about the material design, the designer has to keep in view the scope, quality and nature of the material. It is important to take time before taking decisions about material design. There are two key decisions which researcher needs to take: a) choosing input resources and b) selecting exercise. In order to design material, the designer has to consider the following points:

- Developing aims
- Developing objectives
- Developing a syllabus
- Organizing the course into units
- Developing a structure for units
- Sequencing units

When the process of writing begins, further decisions need to be made about:

- Choosing input sources
- Selecting exercise types

Topic-124: Selecting Exercise Types

One of the most difficult decisions in writing is deciding on the types of exercises that will be used. The issue is how to create exercises that will engage learners in the use of skills and processes related to specific language teaching objectives. A review of the exercise types used in current commercial textbooks is a good starting point.

Exercises that develop "top-down" listening

- Listen to a part of a conversation and infer the topic being discussed.
- Look at pictures and then listen to conversations about the pictures and match them with the pictures. Listen to conversations and identify the setting.
- Read a list of key points to be covered in a talk and then number them in sequence while listening to the talk.
- Read information about a topic, then listen to a talk on the topic and check whether the information was mentioned or not.
- Read one side of a telephone conversation and guess the speaker's responses then listen to more conversation.
- Look at pictures of people speaking and guess what they might be saying or doing then listen to their actual conversations.
- Complete a story then listen to how the story was really ended,
- Guess what news headlines might refer to, and then listen to news broadcasts about the events referred to.

Topic-125: Managing a Material Writing Project

Materials writing projects are of different scope and dimensions. Some may be the responsibility of

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an individual teacher; others may be assigned to a team of writers. The management of a team-based writing project involves addressing the following issues:

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- Selecting the project team: How many people will take part in the project and what are their roles and responsibilities? In a small project, there may be two or three writers sharing responsibilities for all aspects of the project. In a large-scale project, however, the following people might be involved:
- Project Director: responsible for overall management of the project, for setting goals and ensuring that targets are met and for interacting with all parties involved.
- Writers: responsible for writing all components of the course.
- Media Specialist: responsible for audio visual materials and computer software.
- Editor: responsible for reviewing everything the writers have produced and preparing the final version of the materials for publication or duplication.
- Illustrator: responsible for preparing and selecting art and illustrations.
- Designer: responsible for the layout, type, style, graphics, and the overall format of the materials.

Lesson-20

CURRICULUM DESIGN AND INSTRUCTIONAL MATERIALS -III

Topic-126: Monitoring the Use of Materials

No matter what form of materials teachers make use of, whether they teach from textbooks, institutional materials, or teacher-prepared materials, the materials represent plans for teaching. They do not represent the process of teaching itself. As teachers use materials, they adapt and transform them to suit the needs of particular groups of learners and their own teaching styles. These processes of transformation are at the heart of teaching and enable good teachers to create effective lessons out of the resources they make use of. It is useful, therefore, to collect information on how teachers use course books and other teaching materials in their teaching. The information collected can serve following purposes:

- To document effective ways of using materials.
- To provide feedback on how materials work.
- To keep a record of additions, deletions, and supplementary materials teachers may have used with the materials.
- To assist other teachers in using the materials.

Monitoring may take the following forms:

- Observation: classroom visits to see how teachers use materials and to find out how materials influence the quality of teaching and interaction that occurs in a lesson.
- Feedback sessions: group meetings in which teachers discuss their experience with materials.
- Written reports: the use of reflection sheets or other forms of written feedback in which teachers make brief notes about what worked well and what did not work well, or give suggestions on using the materials.
- Reviews: written reviews by a teacher or group of teachers on their experiences with a set of materials and what they liked or disliked about them.

- Students' reviews: comments from students on their experience with the materials.

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Topic-127: Role of Materials in Language Classroom

Language material plays vital role in classroom. Material can offer pedagogical purpose to meet in language classroom. Before looking into the importance of instructional material, we need to see how will it meet learners' needs? How can a course book meet the needs of a specific group of students? These questions, posed by a teacher looking for the first time, try to figure out the role of preplanned materials and importance of resource. It also recalled concerns about the incoherence of many language programs when teachers create their own materials or pick and choose from a range of authentic and published materials and worksheets. In some cases commercial materials give freedom to teachers to choose material as it suits them and that's why it is considered more useful when compared to published material.

Topic-128: Preplanned Materials – Usefulness

Concern whether pre-prepared materials can meet individual learner's needs is a part of the dilemma teachers' face when they try to implement learner-centered language programs in a group setting. This is not a new issue. Over a decade ago, O'Neill (1982) questioned the assumption saying that each group is so unique that its needs cannot be met by materials designed for another group. Such a view not only presupposes it is possible to predict the language needs of students beyond the classroom but also ignores the common linguistic and learning needs of many learners. The process undertaken in establishing the *NSW Certificate of Spoken and Written English*, for example, tends to confirm this commonality by showing that teachers do not vary radically in the choice of language competencies assigned to the learners of a similar proficiency level.

Possible negative aspects of preplanned materials are given below:

- Each group of students is unique so pre-made material cannot meet the needs of another group of students.
- Text books reduce teachers' role.
- There are cultural prejudices.
- Some materials fail to present appropriate and realistic language examples.
- The teacher will follow material exclusively and not pay attention to student's needs.

Possible positive aspects of preplanned materials are as follows:

- Source of information and support
- Suggestions for teachers
- An agent of change
- Convenient method of structuring the learning systems
- Collaboration among teachers

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Materials obviously reflect the writers' views of language and learning, and teachers (and students) will respond according to how well these match their own beliefs and expectations. If materials are to be a helpful scaffold, the underlying principles need to be made explicit and an object of discussion for both students and teachers. We will also look at the assumptions about language and learning which should underpin materials used in language classrooms. Individual end-users will of course weight these factors differently and so need to adapt the materials to their own context and that of the learners.

Effective materials are likely to reflect the following:

- Language is functional and must be contextualized: materials must contextualize the language they present.
- Language development requires learners' engagement in purposeful use of language: Some explicit discussion of language at the whole-text level is presumably useful.
- The language should be realistic and authentic: the problem is to find authentic materials.
- Classroom materials will usually seek to include an audio visual component.
- In our modern technologically complex world, second language learners need to develop the ability to deal with written as well as spoken genres.
- Effective teaching materials foster learners' autonomy.
- Materials need to be flexible enough to cater individual and contextual differences.
- Learning needs to engage learners both affectively and cognitively.

Topic-130: Adopting and Adapting an Existing Course Book

Once a course book has been chosen, teachers may wish to make substantial changes to it. There are several reasons for doing this and these could be classified as responding to the environment, taking account of needs or putting principles into practice. Here are some of them:

- The course book does not include all the activities that the teacher has used successfully before.
- The course book material does not fit comfortably into the time available for the course.
- The course book contains content that is unsuitable for the learners' level of proficiency or age.
- The learners' knowledge and skill do not match that involved in the course book (Prabhu, 1989).
- The course book does not include language items, skills, ideas, discourse or strategies that the learners need.
- The course book does not apply principles that the teacher feels should be applied.
- The course book does not involve the learners in the curriculum design process (Allwright, 1981).

The teacher can do the following things to adapt a course book:

- **Add or omit content:** The teacher adds exercises to give extra practice to items that are frequently used in the language or which require extra time to learn. The teacher skips over confusing or unimportant parts of a lesson, for example teaching only one item in pairs of words that might interfere with each other.
- **Change the sequencing of the content:** The teacher introduces some items earlier in the course because they are needed at that stage.
- **Change the format:** Instead of beginning the lesson with a dialogue, the teacher puts it towards the

end of the lesson and uses the other exercises in the lesson to prepare for it.

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- **Change the presentation:** The teacher uses different techniques than those used in the book. For example a 4/3/2 fluency activity is used to practise some of the dialogues. The activity involves the students usually to be paired with one half as listeners and the other half as speakers. It involves three rounds. In the first round the speaker is given four minutes to talk about the given subject. Then after a short pause where the listeners are changed the speakers talk again on the same subject for three minutes. In the third round the procedure is repeated and the speaker is given two minutes to talk again about the same subject.
- **Add or omit monitoring:** The teacher encourages the learners to make tests to check each other's learning of what is in the lesson (Clarke, 1989).
- **Add or omit assessment:** The teacher introduces weekly tests to encourage learners to do homework or to let them see their progress. An example of the teacher adding content may be through the addition of an extensive reading component to the course. The teacher may decide to do this because she does not feel the course book is applying principles that the teacher believes are important. In this case the principles are:
 - **Comprehensible input:** There should be substantial quantities of interesting comprehensible receptive activity in both listening and reading.
 - **Fluency:** A language course should provide activities aimed at increasing fluency with which learners can use the language they already know, both receptively and productively.
 - **Time on task:** As much time as possible should be spent focusing on and using the second language.

Topic-131: Using Source Books Instead of Course Books

The proper role of course books in teaching is a matter of debate (Richards, 1985). Prabhu (1989) suggests that learners would be better served if teachers did not use course books but assembled their courses by drawing on a variety of source books such as conversation books, timed reading books, intensive reading books, listening texts, as well as teacher-made material. There are several reasons for doing this:

- A single course book does not meet the diverse needs of the learners in the class.
- Drawing material from a variety of sources allows the teacher to keep each lesson as close as possible to what the learners need.
- Learners can have a strong say in what kind of topics and what kind of material they work with. This allows teacher and learners to negotiate the syllabus during the course (Breen, 1984 and Clarke, 1991).
- Teachers have the chance to make greater use of their professional skills such as material preparation, course planning, adaptation of activities and multi-level teaching in one class.
- The circumstances under which the course is taught make it difficult to find an appropriate textbook. For example, the teaching process has been divided up so that one teacher deals with reading, other deals with writing and so on.
- Current course books do not reflect state-of-the-art knowledge in applied linguistics.

The biggest problems faced by the teacher in a course is to draw on source books, to provide systematic coverage of the important language and skills content of the course, and to make it seem like one unified course rather than a set of unrelated bits. Such courses are often organized around themes to

provide this unity. Learners sometimes complain of not seeing any obvious progress when they do not have a set course book.

Generally, the more trained and experienced teachers are the more likely they are to reject the idea of a single textbook. This means that they need to be aware of the various parts of the curriculum design process and need to be able to check that the greater freedom they have to draw on a variety of types of content, presentation and assessment.

Using Computers and the Internet

Technological innovations have always had an impact on teaching. The advent of the computer age has been no exception. It has had an impact on language teaching in four main ways:

- The use of computers and computer software in self-access centres and language-learning laboratories.
- The use of computer-mediated activities in the classroom, most obviously in the teaching of writing (DiGiovanni and Nagaswami, 2001; Fedderholdt, 2001).
- The use of the internet as a source of information (Yang, 2001).
- The use of corpora such as the British National Corpus and the Corpus of Contemporary.

Obvious environment constraints include a lack of money to purchase equipment, schools without electricity and teachers' unfamiliarity with the technology. When the environment analysis and needs analysis favor the use of technology, the most important thing is that teachers consider how the use of technology fits with the course principles. One consideration is whether the new technology will contribute to the course goals more effectively than before. Salaberry (2001) suggests four major questions for teachers to consider about the pedagogical effectiveness and the use of technology:

- Does better technology result in better teaching?
- Which features of technology help teaching and learning?
- How can we use new technologies in the curriculum?
- Do new technologies result in an efficient use of human and material resources?

There are now very useful computer-based and web-based learning tools available at sites like the Compleat Lexical Tutor (www.lextutor.ca), J.P. Loucky's site (www.call4all.us/home/index2.php) and Laurence Anthony's web site (www.antlab.sci.waseda.ac.jp/). There are also large corpora of English available for searching to find out how words are used and the collocations they take.

Topic-132: Evaluating a Course Book

Every year teachers choose course books to use in their courses and learners spend considerable amounts of money buying them. Once a course book has been chosen and bought, there is then an obligation to make use of it even if it turns out to be not very satisfactory. It is thus worth spending some time to look for the best book available and to see whether it is good enough to make the text for a course.

A systematic approach to course book evaluation can be based on the parts of the curriculum design

process:

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- Does the course book suit the environment in which it will be used?
- Does the course book meet the needs of the learners?
- Does the course book apply sensible principles of teaching and learning?
- Do the goals of the course book match the goals of the course?
- Does the content of the course book suit the proficiency level of the learners and reflect sensible selection and sequencing principles?
- Is the course book interesting and does it use effective techniques?
- Does the course book include tests and ways of monitoring progress?

Very early in the evaluation procedure, the teacher needs to decide what features are absolutely essential for the wanted course book. Any course book without these essential features would not be worth considering further. Here are some possible essential features:

- The book should be at the right vocabulary and grammar level for the learners.
- The book should focus on the language and skills that are the goal of the course.
- The book should be below a certain price.
- The book should be readily available.
- The size and number of lessons in the book should suit the length of the course.
- The book should not include behaviour and topics that would offend the religious or cultural sensitivities of the learners and their parents.

It is also useful to go systematically through the parts of the curriculum design process to find such features. The aim is to make a very short list of two or three absolutely essential features that can be used to quickly eliminate books that are not worth considering further. For example, if the course begins in a week's time then the availability of the book is essential. If there is time for orders to be placed and filled, availability is not an essential feature. Similarly, most course books are not too expensive, but if the learners are particularly poor or the school has a very limited budget, a low cost could be an essential feature.

Topic-133: Evaluating the Evaluation Forms

A comparison of the evaluation forms designed by Tucker (1968) and Sheldon (1988) shows how current theories of second-language learning influence course book evaluation. An evaluation form that seemed adequate twenty or forty years ago now seems inappropriate. When examining the adequacy of an evaluation form, we can use the same criteria as we use for evaluating a test:

- Is the form reliable? Would different people using the same form on the same course book reach similar conclusions?
- Is the form valid? Does the form cover the important features of a course book? Is the choice of features to examine in agreement with our current knowledge of curriculum design and second language learning?

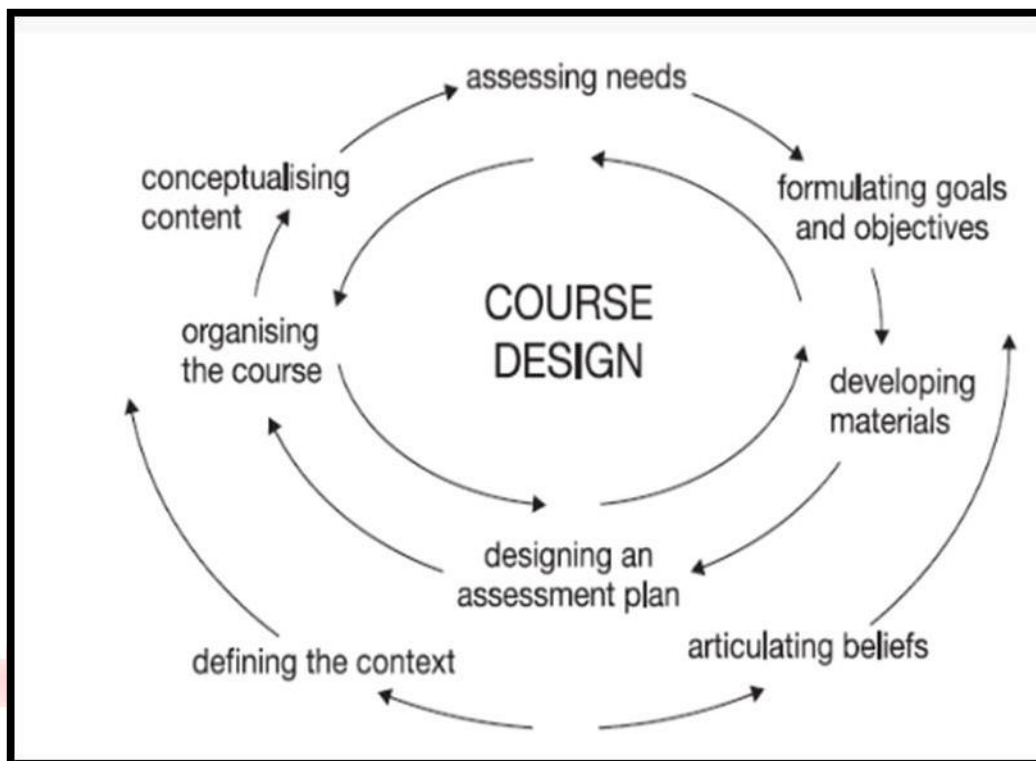
- Is the form practical? Is it easy to understand? Is it easy to use? Can it be used to evaluate a course book in a reasonably short time? Are the results of the evaluation understandable and usable?

Lesson- 21

APPROACHES TO LANGUAGE CURRICULUM DESIGN

Topic-134: Models of Curriculum

This lesson is based on a model of curriculum design which is represented by the curriculum design diagram. This diagram is intended to be easy-to remember so that teachers can use it whenever they face curriculum design issues like how adequate is the model? One way to answer this question is to compare it with other models to see where they overlap and where they don't. Curriculum design diagram is given below:



Monitoring and assessment and evaluation in the Language Curriculum Design model are included in one part of the Graves Model (2000) i.e. designing an assessment plan. In her book, Graves distinguishes evaluation from assessment, but deals with both in the same chapter. Clearly, there is a great deal of similarity between the two models. When looking at other models of curriculum design, it is worth doing such a comparison to see where the similarities and differences lie.

Principles, monitoring and assessment, and evaluation are not included in Murdoch's Model (2010). These are possible weaknesses of his model. However, in his discussion of his model, it is clear that he intends that principles should be considered when dealing with several of the parts of his model. There are numerous other models of curriculum design and it is interesting to compare them to see where their strengths and weaknesses lie.

Topic-135: Doing Curriculum Design

This book has taken the approach that curriculum design is best viewed as a process like writing where the curriculum design could begin at any of several places – needs analysis, materials writing, selection of principles, goals, etc. Some models of curriculum design see it occurring as a series of steps in a fixed order. Tessmer and Wedman (1990) describe this view as a –waterfall model, where one stage of curriculum design (for example environment analysis) is done thoroughly and then the next stage of needs analysis is done thoroughly and so on. It is in the same way as the flow of water fills one container in a stepped-down series and then flows over to fill the next. If this does happen, it is probably rare. Most curriculum design occurs under constraints that make it almost impossible for a waterfall model to occur.

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For example, in many English courses the teacher does not know who the learners will be until the first day of class. Needs analysis before the course begins is thus virtually impossible. The teacher needs to

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come prepared for the first class and so deciding on the content, format and presentation of the material may be a first step. The decisions made for the first day may have to be revised after meeting the learners.

Topic-136: Starting Points

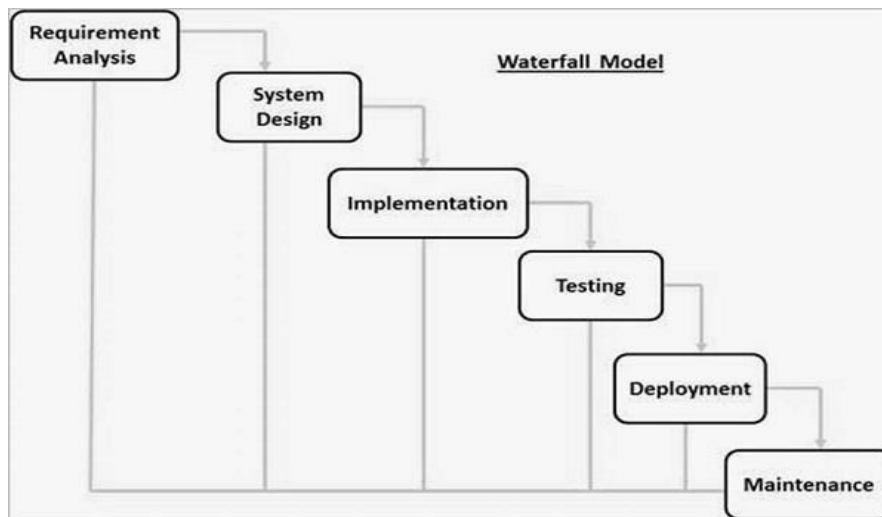
Curriculum designers and teachers can start from nothing and gather and write the material. Most often this happens because of copyright issues with courses that are likely to be published, or where there is no existing course. The curriculum designer or teacher is thus responsible for all parts of the curriculum design process.

Curriculum designers and teachers can draw on a bank of existing materials from which they select the most appropriate material for the course. Such a bank could include: (1) copies of activities prepared by themselves or other teachers for other courses or for previous deliveries of the course, (2) published supplementary materials such as graded readers, grammar activity books, conversation texts, speed reading courses and so on, (3) clippings from newspapers or magazines, recordings from the radio or TV or photocopied material from texts or course books. The curriculum designer or teacher chooses the bits and puts them together to make a course. The curriculum designer or teacher thus takes most responsibility for content, sequencing and goals.

Some curriculum statements and course books deliberately provide only some of the material needed for a complete course. Curriculum statements usually provide the content and sequencing, goals, and assessment parts of the course, and leave it to the teacher to decide on the materials to use to deal with format and presentation.

Topic-137: The Process of Curriculum Design

In most approaches the main parts of the curriculum design process described in the curriculum design model will be covered, but they may be covered at various times, at various degrees of thoroughness, in various orders, and by various people. We will look at the ways of going through the process of curriculum design – the waterfall model (given below), the focused opportunistic approach, and the layers of necessity approach.



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Let us begin where conditions might seem to be ideal for curriculum design, where there is plenty of time, access to the intended learners, a known teaching environment and plenty of resources.

Topic138: The Process of Curriculum Design: A Focused Opportunistic Approach

In a focused opportunistic approach, the format and presentation part of the curriculum design process is typically done first. That is, material is gathered or prepared to teach the course. Then, with each re-teaching of the course, one part of the curriculum design process is done thoroughly. Thus, it might be that a proper needs analysis is not carried out until the third or fourth re-teaching of the course. Tessmer and Richey (1997) warn against this approach, mainly from the point of view of efficiency in that working thoroughly on one aspect of curriculum design may result in wasted effort because the findings may not be able to be used in the other less-elaborated parts of the curriculum design process. The attractiveness of this model is that it allows a concentrated focus with possible high-quality improvements in a course. For example, if during one presentation of a course, assessment was focused on or there was a careful needs analysis done, then the improvements could be done well.

If the time and resources available are very limited, the curriculum designer might choose the least detailed layer. This layer would involve all the following steps:

- Decide on the most severe environmental constraint on the course and how it will affect the curriculum design.
- Decide on the most urgent necessity that learners have to meet at the end of the course.
- Make a short list of items to cover.
- Decide on a simple lesson format that will make use of available material.
- Gather the material for the course.
- Decide on a simple form of assessment

Topic-139: Deciding on an Approach

We have looked at a range of starting points and different paths through the curriculum design process. Choosing which path to take will depend on the starting point, the time available for course preparation, the availability of needs analysis information, the availability of a usable course book, and the skill of the curriculum designer. We will assume that time is short and that only a small amount of needs analysis information is available.

Clearly, the least demanding approach is to choose an existing course book as a source of material and then apply a focused opportunistic approach to gradually improve and eventually replace it.

Whatever approach is chosen, the advantage of following a systematic approach to curriculum design involving all the parts of a model is that parts of the process are not missed out. Poor curriculum design misses important parts and does not deal with parts in a principled way.

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Lesson- 22

CURRICULUM APPROACHES IN LANGUAGE TEACHING: FORWARD AND CENTRAL DESIGN

Topic-140: Introduction to Curriculum Approaches in Language Teaching

The development and implementation of language teaching programs can be approached in several different ways, each of which has different implications for curriculum design. Three curriculum approaches are described and compared. Each differs with respect to when issues related to input, process, and outcomes are addressed. **Forward design** starts with syllabus planning, moves to methodology, and

is followed by assessment of learning outcomes. Resolving issues of syllabus content and sequencing are

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essential starting points with forward design, which has been the major tradition in language curriculum development. **Central design** begins with classroom processes and methodology. Issues of syllabus and learning outcomes are not specified in detail in advance and are addressed as the curriculum is implemented. Many of the innovative methods of the 1980s and 90s reflect central design. **Backward design** starts from a specification of learning outcomes and decisions on methodology and syllabus are developed from the learning outcomes.

Topic-141: Input, Process and the Curriculum

In language teaching, *input* refers to the linguistic content of a course. It seems logical to assume that before we can teach a language, we need to decide what linguistic content to teach. Once content has been selected then it needs to be organized into teachable and learnable units as well as arranged in a rational sequence. The result is a syllabus. There are many different conceptions of a language syllabus. Different approaches to syllabus design reflect different understandings of the nature of language and different views as to what the essential building blocks of language proficiency are, such as vocabulary, grammar, functions or text types.

Criteria for the selection of syllabus units include frequency, usefulness, simplicity, learnability and authenticity. Once input has been determined, issues concerning teaching methods and the design of classroom activities and materials can be addressed. These belong to the domain of process.

Process refers to how teaching is carried out and constitutes the domain of methodology in language teaching. Methodology encompasses the types of learning activities, procedures and techniques that are employed by teachers when they teach and the principles that underlie the design of the activities and exercises in their textbooks and teaching resources. These procedures and principles relate to beliefs and theories concerning the nature of language, second language learning, and the roles of teachers, learners and instructional materials. Change in the ideas about language and language learning has caused change in the instructional practices associated with them. Throughout the twentieth century, there was a movement away from mastery-oriented approaches focusing on the production of accurate samples of language use to the use of more activity-oriented approaches focusing on interactive and communicative classroom processes.

Topic-142: Forward Design

Forward design is based on the assumption that input, process, and output are related in a linear fashion. In other words, before decisions about methodology and output are determined, issues related to the content of instruction need to be resolved. Curriculum design is seen to constitute a sequence of stages that occur in a fixed order – an approach that has been referred to as a ‘waterfall’ model (Tessmer and Wedman, 1990) where the output from one stage serves as the input to the stage that follows.

The traditional approach to developing a syllabus involves using one’s understanding of subject matter as the basis for syllabus planning. One starts with the field of knowledge that one is going to teach and then selects concepts, knowledge, and skills that constitute that field of knowledge. A syllabus and the

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course content are then developed around the subject. Objectives may also be specified, but these usually have little role in teaching or assessing of the subject. Assessment of students is usually based on

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norm referencing, that is, students will be graded on a single scale with the expectation that they spread across a wide range of scores or that they conform to a pre-set distribution.

In language teaching, forward planning is an option when the aims of learning are understood in very general terms. such as in courses in ‘general English’ or with introductory courses at primary or secondary level where goals may be described in such terms as ‘proficiency in language use across a wide range of daily situations’, or ‘communicative ability in the four language skills’. Curriculum planning in these cases involves operationalizing the notions of ‘general English’, or ‘intermediate level English’ or ‘writing skills’ in terms of units that can be used as the basis for planning, teaching and assessment. This is the approach that was adopted by the Council of Europe in the 1970s.

Topic-143: Forward Design: Word Lists, Grammar Syllabus, Corpora and Discourse Analysis

English language teaching has been strongly influenced by the use of lists as input to teaching. West’s General Service List (1953) identified a core set of some 2,000 lexical items needed to sustain language ability. Hindmarsh (1980) identified 4,500 words grouped into seven levels, a similar total to the list included in the Council of Europe’s Threshold Level (Van Ek and Alexander, 1975). Lists of the core set of grammatical items learners needed to master were also developed such as Hornby’s Guide to Patterns and Usage in English (1954), which together with subsequent variants have provided the basis for the grammatical syllabuses underlying language courses and course books ever since. The communicative language teaching movement in the 1980s prompted attempts to shift from grammar and lexis as the primary components of a syllabus, to communicative units of syllabus organization. This led to proposals for a number of different syllabus models including notional, functional, lexical, text and task-based-models.

In recent years, most ESL/EFL professionals have adopted a preference for —authentic materials, presenting language from natural texts rather than made-up texts. Corpora provide a ready source of natural or authentic texts for language learning (Reppen, 2010).

Corpus analysis has revealed the importance of units beyond the level of vocabulary (e.g. phrases, multiword units and collocations) and provides information that can be used to update or replace the earlier generations of lists that have been used in syllabus design. O’Keefe (2007) suggests that course book dialogues, and even entire syllabi, can be informed by corpus data. Another approach that has been used to provide authentic input to teaching is through the use of discourse analysis – a procedure that is used to study the nature of different text types, the ways they are used, and their lexical, grammatical, and textual features. This is particularly important in the design of courses in English for Special Purposes (ESP) where the identification of the lexical, syntactic and textual structures of different genres is a pre-requisite to teaching specialized genres.

ESP curricula generally focus strongly on the description and illustration of communication and language use in the specialist field. Thus the language content of ESP courses is pivotal in ESP course design. Many courses are strongly focused on language content (as opposed to content of another nature, such as learning strategies). Many courses have this major objective that the students will have better

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understanding of communication and language use in the specialist field or target discourse community by the end of the course. Moreover, such courses generally aim to offer realistic descriptions of discourse

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derived from empirical investigations of communication and language use in the community or specialist field (Basturkmen, 2010).

Topic-144: Forward Design: Syllabus and Methodology

With a forward design approach, decisions about teaching processes or methodology follow from syllabus specification. Ideally, the planner starts with a theory of language and a syllabus derived from it and then looks for a learning theory that could be used as the basis for an appropriate pedagogy. In some cases there has been a natural link between input and process, between content and method, such as the natural link between structural linguistics and behaviorist learning theory that led to both the audiolingual method and situational language. However, in theory a syllabus does not necessarily imply a particular methodology. A structural syllabus can be embodied in an audiolingual as well as a task-based course, and there are many different ways in which a text-based or functional syllabus can be taught.

The audiolingual method, the audio-visual method and the structural situational method have already been cited as examples of forward design methods. More recent examples include Communicative Language Teaching (CLT) and content based teaching/CLIL.

The impetus for the development of CLT came from a change in the understanding of the nature of language prompted by Hymes' notion of communicative competence. While the concept of communicative competence was embraced enthusiastically by the language teaching profession, an initial concern in CLT was with the operationalization of the notion of communicative competence and the development of a communicative syllabus to replace earlier grammar-based syllabus models.

The priority of syllabus specification over methodology in CLT is reflected in Munby's (1978) *Communicative Syllabus Design* – an influential book with a model for specifying the syllabus content of a course based on learners' communicative needs. Methodological issues are described as a 'dimension of course design which is subsequent to syllabus specification' (1978). The next step in curriculum development with the Munby model thus involves designing a methodology that is compatible with a communicative syllabus. The final stage in the process is the development of principles for assessment, which aim to measure how well learners can demonstrate communicative language ability (Wier, 1990).

Topic-145: Implementing a Forward Design Curriculum

In some contexts the planning and development of each stage in the curriculum development process is carried out by different specialists who have expertise in each process, such as specialists in syllabus design, methodology and assessment. Graves (2008) describes this as a 'specialist approach'. In the specialist approach, the potential for mismatch (i.e. lack of alignment between the different components of the curriculum) is great because each different group of people performs different curricular functions, uses different discourses, and produces different curricular products.

Topic-146: Central Design

While a progression from input, to process, to output would seem to be a logical approach to the planning and delivery of instruction, it is only one route that can be taken. With central design, curriculum

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development starts with the selection of teaching activities, techniques and methods rather than with the elaboration of a detailed language syllabus or specification of learning outcomes. Issues related to input and output are dealt with after a methodology has been chosen or developed or during the process of teaching itself. Clark (1987) refers to this as ‘progressivism’ and an example of a process approach to the curriculum.

We communicate, and if it is found useful, we can look at the product of our efforts and discuss what has occurred by examining the exponents and attempting to relate them to particular notions and functions, or to lexical and grammatical categories. But this is an after-the-event way of breaking up the flux and flow of a particular discourse, rather than means of predetermining what one may wish to say. This does not deny that the teacher and pupil may need to focus on particular elements of rhetorical, semantic, and grammatical content that arise in the discourse. It seems important to insist, however, that such focuses should arise out of language in use, rather than precede them, so that learners are enabled to discover rules of use, form-meaning relationships, and formal rules and systems against the backdrop of real contextualized discourse (Clark, 1987).

Research on teachers’ practices reveals that teachers often follow a central design approach when they develop their lessons by first considering the activities and teaching procedures they will use. Rather than starting their planning processes by detailed considerations of input or output, they start by thinking about the activities they will use in the classroom. While they assume that the exercises and activities they make use of will contribute to successful learning outcomes, it is the classroom processes they seek to provide for their learners that are generally their initial focus.

Topic-147: Central Design in Language Teaching

Language teaching in the first part of the twentieth century was shaped by teaching methods which reflected a forward planning approach. Methods such as the *Audiolingual Method*, *Situational Language Teaching*, and early versions of *Communicative Language Teaching* had firm foundations in well-developed syllabuses, either grammatically based or with a more communicative framework as with CLT. But alternative bases for methods emerged in the second half of the twentieth century with the emergence of a number of instructional designs that rejected the need for pre-determined syllabuses or learning outcomes and were built instead around specifications of classroom activities. These new teaching methods and approaches started with process, rather than input or output and were often recognized by the novel classroom practices they employed. They reflected the central design approach – one in which methodology is the starting point in course planning and content is chosen in accordance with the methodology rather than the other way round.

Like other central-design proposals, there is no need for clearly defined outcomes or objectives. The purpose and content of a course ‘will vary according to the needs of the students and their particular interests’ (Krashen and Terrell, 1983). The fact that the natural approach was not input or output driven (i.e. not built around a pre-determined syllabus and set of learning outcomes) meant that it could not provide a framework for the design of instructional materials and textbooks. Hence, there are no syllabuses or published courses based on the natural approach.

Gategno's Silent Way (1972) can be understood as another example of central design in language teaching. Language input is not the starting point in the Silent Way. Rather than beginning with the development of a linguistic syllabus, Gategno was skeptical of the role of language analysis in teaching. Linguistic studies 'may be a specialization [that] carry with them a narrow opening of one's sensitivity and perhaps serve very little towards the broad end in mind' (Gategno, 1972). Gategno's starting point was a view of learning which saw it as a problem-solving, creative process of discovery. The method is intended to activate the learner's powers of awareness and capacity to learn. Both input and output are more or less taken for granted. Mastery of grammar and vocabulary and the ability to use language fluently and accurately, on the other hand, are at the core of language mastery in the Silent Way.

Topic-148: Implementing a Central Design

Each of the innovations referred above offers different versions of the idea of a classroom as focused on the learner or as a learning community, a notion which has been theorized in greater detail and depth by Wenger (1998) and others. From this perspective, learning takes place in a context and evolves through the interaction and participation of the participants in that context. Learning is not viewed as the mastery of pre-determined content but as constructing new knowledge through participating in specific learning and social contexts and through engaging in particular types of activities and processes.

Yet in other respects, the approaches described above are disparate groups that reflect very different assumptions about the nature of second language learning and the role of instruction in language teaching. What they have in common, however, is the priority they attribute to learning processes, classroom participation, and the role of the teacher and the learners in creating opportunities for learning. The syllabus or learning input (rather than being something that is predetermined or prescribed and regarded as essential in initiating curriculum development) is rather an outcome of teaching and learning. In the older method-based proposals referred above, testing has the role of assessment of learning (i.e. achievement testing) while in the more recent proposals, a more dynamic role for assessment is assumed – assessment for learning – where teaching and assessment inform each other at every stage of the teaching/learning process.

Lesson-23

CURRICULUM APPROACHES IN LANGUAGE TEACHING:

BACKWARD DESIGN

Topic-149: Backward Design

The third approach to curriculum design is to begin with a specification of learning outputs and to

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use these as the basis for developing instructional processes and input. Following Wiggins and McTighe (2006) and continuing with the analogy of forward and central design used above, the term backward design will be used to describe this approach. Backward design starts with a careful statement of the

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desired results or outcomes: appropriate teaching activities and content are derived from the results of learning. This is a well-established tradition in curriculum design in general education, and in recent years has re-emerged as a prominent curriculum development approach in language teaching. It was sometimes described as an ‘ends-means’ approach, as seen in the work of Tyler (1949) and Taba (1962), who viewed instruction as the specification of ends as a pre-requisite to devising the means to reach them. The process consists of seven steps:

- Step 1: diagnosis of needs
- Step 2: formulation of objectives
- Step 3: selection of content
- Step 4: organization of content
- Step 5: selection of learning experiences
- Step 6: organization of learning experiences
- Step 7: determination of what to evaluate and of the ways of doing it

The role of methodology was to determine which teaching methods were most effective in attaining the objectives and a criterion-referenced approach would be used for assessment. There is no place for individually-determined learning outcomes: the outcomes are determined by the curriculum designer.

Topic-150: Significance of Needs Analysis within Backward Design Approach

The use of classroom activities and processes as the starting point in instructional planning is strongly criticized by Wiggins and McTighe (2006), who argue for starting with a clear description of learning outcomes as the basis for curriculum planning. In backward design, they recommend the following three steps:

- Identify desired results.
- Determine acceptable evidence of learning.
- Plan learning experiences and instruction.

The planning process begins with a clear understanding of the ends in mind. It explicitly rejects as a starting point the process or activity-oriented curriculum in which participation in activities and processes is primary. It does not imply any particular pedagogical approach or instructional theory or philosophy. A variety of teaching strategies can be employed to achieve the desired goals but teaching methods cannot be chosen until the desired outcomes have been specified. From this perspective many of the central-design methods or activity-oriented approaches discussed above fail to meet the criterion of good instructional design. In language teaching, a number of curriculum approaches and procedures have been advocated that reflect the principles of backward design.

Needs Analysis (identifying learning outcomes or objectives) is often seen to depend upon a systematic analysis of the learners’ communicative needs. It emerged in the 1960s as a part of the systems approach to curriculum development – an aspect of the prevalent philosophy of educational accountability from which the use of objectives was also derived (Stufflebeam, 1985).

Informal needs assessment deals with the informal negotiation that takes place between class teachers and students in the form of chats with either individual students, groups of students or the whole class in order to select a focus for the class. It is a necessary component of information retrieval on students' learning needs and should be recorded. It can subsequently be used as input for aims and objective setting and for devising course outlines (Shaw and Dowsett, 1986).

The steps involved are:

- Identify learner's communicative needs.
- Develop statements of learning objectives.
- Identify linguistic content and skills needed to attain the objectives.
- Prepare course plans.
- Select materials and teaching methods.

Topic-151: Competency-based Instruction within Backward Design Approach -I

Competency-based Instruction (CpBI) is another widely used example of backward design. With CpBI the starting point of curriculum design is a specification of the learning outcomes in terms of 'competencies' – the knowledge, skills and behaviours learners involved in performing everyday tasks and activities and which learners should master at the end of a course of study.

Competency-based education has much in common with such approaches to learning as performance-based instruction, mastery learning and individualized instruction. It is outcome-based and is adaptive to the changing needs of students, teachers and the community. Competencies differ from other student's goals and objectives in that they describe the student's ability to apply basic and other skills in situations that are commonly encountered in everyday life. Thus, CpBI is based on a set of outcomes that are derived from an analysis of tasks typically required of students in life role situations.

Topic-152: Competency-Based Instruction within Backward Design Approach II

An example of how this approach was used in developing a vocational curriculum for refugees and immigrants in the US is given in Mrowicki (1986). The process consisted of:

- Needs analysis.
- Identify topics for the survival curriculum (e.g. banking, health, shopping).
- Identify target tasks, design tasks.
- Identify competencies for each topic.
- Group competencies into instructional units.
- Identify the language knowledge and skills needed for each instructional unit (e.g. the 4 skills, vocabulary and grammar).
- Choose instructional materials.

Competency-based approaches to teaching and assessment offer teachers an opportunity to

revitalize their education and training programs. Not only will the quality of assessment improve, but the

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quality of teaching and student learning will be enhanced by clear specification of expected outcomes and the continuous feedback that competency-based assessment can offer.

Like other backward design approaches, CpBI makes no assumptions about teaching methods, since any set of classroom activities can be used that enables students to master the desired competencies. However, since student learning is assessed on the basis of performance and the ability to demonstrate mastery of pre-specified skills and behaviors, teaching is generally based on helping learners acquire the communicative skills needed for specific situations, tasks and activities. As with other backward design approaches, needs analysis is the starting point in curriculum development.

Topic-153: Subject-centered Design

In this system, the main focus is on curriculum development (not human development) with subject specialists developing —high standardsl for student uniformity (what our society believes all students should know and be able to do at grade-level check points). Teachers are told what and how to teach.

The main goal and purpose is to standardize students, to make them alike with a —core curriculum. A large amount of meaningless testing is imposed on teachers to inflict on students. Teachers have big classes that restrict teachers from getting to know each child well enough to form a close relationship. Parents are usually not involved except to help their child with the teacher-assigned homework. Teachers spend much time imparting the state curriculum. They focus on what students don't know and can't do. Students are required to do teacher-assigned homework. Students are not encouraged to ask questions. Learning merely to pass tests is shallow and temporary.

Topic-154: Learner-centered Design

The concept of learner-centeredness has been invoked with increasing frequency in recent years. The philosophy of learner-centeredness has strong links with experiential learning, humanistic psychology and task-based language teaching. This approach places the learner at the center of the pedagogic process and sees education not as a matter of receiving information but of intelligent inquiry and thought (Gibbons, 2002).

A learner-centered curriculum will contain similar elements to those contained in traditional curriculum development, that is, planning (including needs analysis, goal and objective setting), implementation (including methodology and material development) and evaluation. However, the main difference between learner centered and traditional curriculum development is that in the former the curriculum is a collaborative effort between teachers and learners. Therefore, learners need to be systematically taught in order to implement a learner- centered approach to pedagogy. In other words, language programs should have dual goals: language content goals and learning process goals.

Learner-centered curriculum will allow students to participate more fully in the arrangement of their own learning experiences in such a way that two key objectives are realized. One, students will participate in the shaping of curriculum thereby addressing the imperatives of many contextual issues that

include a new situational/personal culture. Two, student involvement is arranged so that students engage

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in meta-learning i.e. providing them the opportunity to learn about design and construction of purposeful learning activities.

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